

LESSON 01**INTRODUCTION TO SOCIAL PSYCHOLOGY****Aims**

Introduction of social psychology is a very important discipline of psychology.

Objectives

1. Defining social psychology.
2. Introduce main content and subject matter of social psychology in relations to different questions of interest in this discipline.

General Introduction of the Course

Social psychology is the scientific study of how people think, influence, and relate to one another. It is a comparatively young discipline. The broad theme of this course will be how individuals' thoughts, feelings, and behaviors are influenced by other people -- the SOCIAL influences. Social Psychology is a surprisingly broad field that overlaps with other sub-disciplines of psychology like personality and cognition, and various other human disciplines like anthropology, sociology, and communication.

Learning Objectives of this course

- To acquaint the students with the field of social psychology. When we say “the field of psychology, we mean a broad range of topics relevant to social psychology, general scientific approach of the discipline, and various concepts, principles, and theories pertaining to this discipline.
- To provide many insights into our own and others' behavior.
- Benefiting one's own relationships and services as a friend, relative, roommate, neighbour, and co-worker

Practical application of this course

Through journal writing and Applied social psychology Lab students will be able to experience the personal relevance of social psychology. The introduction of these two procedures is as under:

■ **Journal:** One means of enhancing the course's personal relevance is an assignment called a “Journal”, which students will accomplish as the course will proceed.

■ **Applied Social Psychology Lab:** Different classroom activities will be conducted to give students a practical overview and knowledge about the application of Social Psychology by case reports, small activities, and current research.

By the End of this course students will be able to:

- Demonstrate foundational knowledge in social psychology
- Apply social psychological phenomena to one's own thinking, behavior, and relationships
- Recognize the extent to which social behaviors are influenced by situational and interpretive factors

Readings**Text Books**

- Franzoi, S.L. (2006). Social Psychology. New York: McGraw Hill.
- David G. Myers, D. G. (2003). Social Psychology (7th ed.). New York: McGraw-Hill.

Other Readings

- Lord, C.G. (1997). Social Psychology. Orlando: Harcourt Brace and Company.
- Lippa, R.A. (1994). Introduction to Social Psychology... Belmont: Brooks/Cole Publishing Company.

What is Social Psychology?

In the following two definitions of social psychology have been described, the first of these has been quoted in majority of the textbooks on social psychology.

■ Social psychology is a discipline that uses scientific methods in “an attempt to understand and explain how the thought, feeling and behaviour of individuals are influenced by the actual, imagined or implied presence of others” (Gordon Allport, 1985, p. 3).

■ Social psychology is the scientific study of how individuals think, feel, and behave toward other people and how individual's thoughts, feelings, & behaviours are affected by other people (Brehm, Kassin, & Fein, 2002, p. 5).

Main Elements of Definitions

■ Thoughts, Feelings, and Behaviours of individual

■ Influence of other people

■ How these influences will be studied? It will be done by the use of Scientific Method.

The definitions suggest a cause and effect equation – people influencing individual's thoughts, feelings and behaviour.

Main Questions of Interest in Social Psychology

The topics of social psychology—attitudes, person perception, interpersonal attraction, conformity, etc. are among the most personal but largely unexamined parts of ourselves. Questions of interest in social psychology can be divided into 3 categories: these 3 categories correspond to thoughts, feelings and behaviour components of definition of social psy. However, this is merely a convenient way of organization, one overlaps with other part.

The main questions/ topics of interest in social psychology are as given below:

■ Thinking about the self and others

■ Evaluating persons and relationships

■ Interacting with others

1st Question: Thinking about the self & others

Each question of interest can be further divided into different categories. For example, different questions can be asked under this first question of interest. The following 4 questions seem diverse but they refer to the thought process.

Social cognition is thought process in general; however, other questions given below investigate one specific kind of thinking.

■ **Social cognition:** Researchers who are working on social cognition can ask the following question in their investigation: “How do jury decide guilt or innocence”

■ **Person perception:** People working on person perception can be curious to know: “How do we know when someone is lying or telling truth”

■ **Attribution:** It refers to thought process that occur when we decide what caused another person's behavior

■ **The self:** We ask specific questions about ourselves, for example one may be inquisitive that “when does a thin body image promotes eating disorders”

2nd Question: Evaluating people & relationships

The following 5 questions also seem diverse but they all involve people's feelings. Attitude is the most basic type of field - about feeling in general.

■ **Attitude:** feelings lie at the core of + and neg. attitudes; how feelings, thoughts and behaviour relate to each other: why people feel one way and yet behave in exactly the opposite way

■ **Attitude change:** This question of social psychology is concerned with when and why people alter their attitude over time. For example, “how can we instill positive attitude in children toward school”.

■ **Prejudice:** People interested in research on prejudice, etc. may also be interested in investigating that “how can society reduce stereotyping and discrimination”

■ **Interpersonal attractions:** These issues may question, “why do people desire to make friends with one and not the others”, or “why people feel romantic attraction for one and not for other person”.

■ **Close relationships:** Researchers working in this area may be inquisitive that “how our feelings toward significant others change over time”, for example, how happy marriages end into bitter divorces.

3rd Question: Interacting with Others

Human beings interact through many different behaviors; some of them are given below:

■ **Social Influence:** studies how one person’s behaviour/ presence influences another person’s behaviour.

■ **Helping:** “How can we convince more people to help disabled”

■ **Aggression:** “Does media violence promotes violence in real life” why people assault, hit, and kill each other

■ **Interpersonal Power:** why ordinary citizens sometime engage in torture, ethnic cleansing, or genocide

■ **Groups:** “Why can’t one religious group agree with the other”... whether people behave differently while in group.

The above mentioned 14 questions, which correspond to three main questions of interest as indicated in the definition of psychology, have been the content of majority of the text books on social psychology in the form of different chapters of the text. This suggests that the subject matter of social psychology is different components of thoughts, feelings, and behaviors of individuals.

How Others’ Presence Affect an individual?

The definition of social psychology suggests that it is the scientific study of how individual’s thoughts, feelings, and behaviours are influenced by the actual, imagined or implied presence of other people. To better understand this definition, let’s take a few examples.

Actual Presence of people affecting the individual:

First take an example, how might the actual presence of others influence one’s thoughts, feelings and behaviour. Response of cricket players may become different when fans of some opposing team shout and make loud noises to divert attention of the players. Similarly, your behaviour will be changed if you notice that someone is watching you.

Imagined Presence of people affecting the individual:

Regarding how the imagined presence of others might influence thoughts, feelings, and behaviour, think about past incidents when you were considering doing something that ran counter to your parents’ wishes. Although they may not have been actually present, did their imagined presence influence your behaviour? For example, if your parents have prohibited you from smoking, and you start smoking in a party on peer pressure, does their imagined presence affect your behaviour? Imagined presence in certain cases can be quite strong, as indicated by Shaw (2003), “Imagined figures can guide our actions by shaping our interpretation of events just as surely as do those who are physically present”. In a few conditions, imagined presence can also help us fight negative emotions. For example, McGowan (2002) pointed out that in anxiety imagined presence of others can serve as emotional security blanket. Similarly, daughter of one renowned social psychologist confided to her father that she wants to be as brave as two young wizards, Hermione & Harry in Harry Potter books.

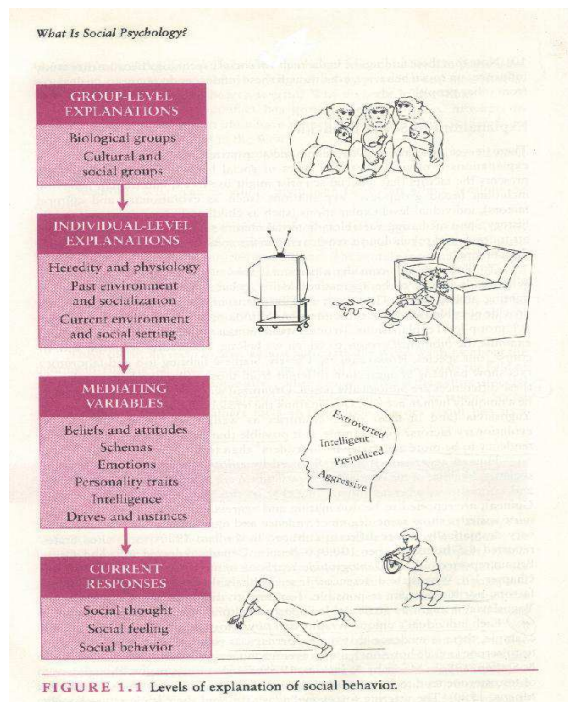
Implied Presence of people affecting the individual:

Finally, how the implied presences of others influence an individual? If you have an experience of driving on the motorway, you would have noticed that signs of specific speed limit make you conscious. Similarly, in shopping stores sometime posters indicate that “You are being watched”... All of this makes you self ware and brings a change in your behaviour.

Other Factors affecting the individual

Social psychologists also believe that it is not only the presence of other people that influences a person's thoughts, feelings and behaviour, but some other factors are also contributing to that. In this reference, three kinds of explanations of social behaviour can be presented. Figure 1.1 presents the factors that a social scientist might use to explain human behaviour.

This diagram shows that three explanations can affect human social behaviour in following ways:



■ **Broad group level explanations**, i.e., evolutionary and cultural factors

■ **Individual-level explanations**: such as childhood experiences, and family history

■ **Mediating variables**: internal factors such as personality traits, and attitudes.

Broad Group-level Explanations: Evolutionary and Cultural Factors

Animals show different pattern of aggression than human beings, These are biological based. e.g., organized warfare seems to be a uniquely human activity. Similarly, people living in different countries demonstrate differences in exhibition of aggression. Evolutionary factors indicate that people living at particular places/ locations have evolved with a tendency to become more or less aggressive to outsiders than to their own kind? For example, tension and resulting aggression in Yugoslavia and other countries like Israel and Palestine could be due to evolutionary and cultural factors both. To explain cultural differences in aggressive behaviour, Margaret Mead (1935) reported that some societies are peaceful (e.g., Arapesh of New Guinea) while others, although living in the same geographical region) are dominating and aggressive (e.g., Mundugumor of new Guinea)

Differences have also been reported in world-wide Violence rates, for example, in 1980s, violence rates of 8.5%/100,1000 were reported in the USA as compared to 1.9% in Canada, and 0.6% in the UK. These different statistics indicate effects of culture and evolutionary factors on social behaviour.

Individual-level Explanations

■ **Heredity & physiology**: Genetic and biological factors also influence human social behaviour. For example, males have been found more aggressive than women due to a male hormone

testosterone (Eagly & Steffan, 1986). Moreover, men with higher levels of testosterone have been reported as more aggressive than those with lower levels (Dabbs & Morris, 1990).

■ **Past experiences:** Early learning and child rearing practices also contribute to differences in people's social behaviour. For example, girls are taught not to be aggressive by their parents from their childhood. Moreover, expression of anger is not appreciated in girls and women. This gender difference is also very pronounced in some cultures, so culture also plays a dominant role in these associations. This also suggests that these group or individual level explanations are not mutually exclusive; they all seem to interact with each other. Another example can be how aggression would have been created and shaped in Kashmiris and Palestinians by the teachings of their parents in the process of growing up.

■ **Current situational factors** could also influence a person's behaviour. The classic study of Hoveland and Sears (1940) could be illustrative in this case. They found a significant correlation between economic frustration and lynching of black by white people in Old South. Media violence is an ever-present influence as far as situational factors are concerned. Another example is conformity research, where results showed that how group pressure can induce people shift their beliefs

Mediating Variables

Mediating variables create a link between situational, cultural, and individual level explanations. These are related with the person concerned and can not be directly observed, so they must be inferred from a person's behavior. The effect of mediating variables indicate that for understanding a person's thoughts, feelings and behaviour, one must slip inside the skin of the individual. The following refer to different mediating variables:

- **Beliefs:** compromise the cognitive information.
- **Attitudes** are evaluative responses.
- **Schemas:** a kind of mental model that people hold
- **Emotions:** transient states of arousal that direct our behavior
- **Personality traits** are stable dispositions influencing broad domains of behavior

Current Responses of the individual

Figure 1.1 indicates that all of these evolutionary, cultural, individual, situational, and mediating variables determine a person's social thoughts, feelings and behaviour.

Readings

1. Franzoi, S.L. (2006). Social Psychology. New York: McGraw Hill. Chapter 1.
2. Lord, C.G. (1997). Social Psychology. Orlando: Harcourt Brace and Company. Chapter 1.
- Lippa, R.A. (1994). Introduction to Social Psychology... Belmont: Brooks/Cole Publishing Company. Chapter 1.

LESSON 02**INTRODUCTION TO SOCIAL PSYCHOLOGY****Aims:**

Introducing link of social psychology with other disciplines and tracing the historical roots.

Objectives:

1. Understanding whether social psychological research outcomes are just what we commonly believe.
2. Understanding the relation of social psychology with other disciplines.
3. To understand social psychology as a profession.
4. Understanding the major theoretical roots of social psychology.

Is Social Psychology simply Common Sense?

A common refrain voiced by laypeople and scientists is that most, if not all, of behavioral science “is just common sense.” Social psychology students are particularly likely to make this claim, given that much of their prior exposure to social psychology probably has taken the form of aphorisms such as “opposites attract,” “absence makes the heart grow fonder,” or “two heads are better than one.” In a nutshell, it’s difficult to counter the “common-sense” stigma when so much of behavior seems to be explainable at an intuitive surface level.

People think of social psychology as simply rephrasing what we already know because its subject matter is so personal and familiar. This is referred to “as if I knew it all along” phenomena. We informally think about our feelings, thoughts and actions. Why this informal thinking will be different from what social psychologists achieve through scientific observation? In many ways this is true. Let’s look at these examples, they confirm what many of us already know.

- “Attending to people’s face leads to the greatest success in detecting their lies”
- “People are less likely to blame accident victims if they are similar to them”
- “People who are paid a great deal of money to perform a boring task enjoy it more than those who are paid very little”
- “Men express more hostile attitude toward women than women do toward men”
- “People think that physically attractive people are less intelligent than those who are physically unattractive”
- “Playing violent video games or engaging in contact sports allows people to “blow off steam” making them less aggressive”
- “Accident victims are most likely to be helped when there are many bystanders nearby”

Interestingly, all of these make sense, but they have been proven wrong by social experiments. Actually events are far more “obvious” and predictable in hindsight than beforehand. Many a time social psychology confirms our common sense notions but there are many instances when the scientific findings challenge our current social beliefs. The problem with common sense is that we invoke it after we know the facts

Experiments reveal that when people learn the outcome of an experiment, the outcome suddenly seems unsurprising.

Activity to demonstrate social psychology as simply commonsense:

You can do a small activity to further understand this commonsense phenomenon. Give half a group one psychological finding, and the other half the opposite (as given below).

Psychological Finding 1:

“Psychologists have found that when it comes to making friends, or falling in love, we are most attracted to people whose traits are different from our own. There seems to be wisdom in the old saying that “Opposites attract”

Psychological Finding 2:

“Psychologists have found that when it comes to making friends, or falling in love, we are most attracted to people whose traits are similar to our own. There seems to be wisdom in the old saying that “Birds of a feather flock together”

Then you ask both groups whether results surprised them, and you will find that both groups will find the results not at all surprising. In fact, many will state that they already thought the same.

Social Psychology and Related Fields

Social psychologists are keenly interested in how people think about, influence, and relate to one another. But so are sociologists and personality psychologists. The question is how does social psychologist differ?

Social Psychology and Sociology:

Edward Jones (1998) indicates in Handbook of Social Psychology that two scientific disciplines known as social psychology are employed in both, one in psychology, and the other in sociology. He suggests that the larger of the two is psychological branch: psychological social psychology, and sociological social psychology.

Social psychology focuses on the influence of people on the individual, whereas

Sociology downplays the role of individual and focuses on societal variables like socio-economic-status (SES), people’s social roles, cultural norms, etc. On the other hand, social psychology concentrates on individual traits (personality traits and temperament) and processes that occur at individual level

Although there have been calls to merge the two branches into a single field, and a joint psychology-sociology doctorate program at the university of Michigan from 1946 to 1967- their different orientation made it doubtful. Despite the fact that an interdisciplinary social psychology may never materialize, the two fields influence each other. The recent interest of social psychology is on the impact of culture on social behavior, while sociological social psychology’s is becoming increasingly interested in individual differences. Regardless of the crosspollination that has occurred over the years, both disciplines will continue to provide important yet differing perspectives on social behavior.

Areas of interest in both disciplines:

Sociologists might study trends in marriage, divorce, etc., while social psychologist might examine how certain individuals become attracted to one another. Similarly, sociologist studies how racial attitude of high-class people as a group differ from that of low-class, social psychologist will be interested how racial attitude develops within the individual.

The following table illustrates differences in both disciplines:

PSYCHOLOGICAL SOCIAL PSY	SOCIOLOGICAL SOCIAL PSY
1. Central focus on individual	1. Focus on group/society
2. Variations in behavior believed to be due to people’s interpretation of social stimuli and differences in personality.	2. Explanations for such societal-based problems as poverty, crime, and deviance.
3. Experimentation as the primary research method, followed by correlational studies, and then observation.	3. Observational and the correlational studies as the primary method, followed by Experimentation

Social Psychology and Personality Psychology

These both disciplines can be considered as allies as their focus is on individual.

May be for this reason, American Psychological Association has included both disciplines in same journals: *Personality and Social Psychology Bulletin*, and *Journal of*

However, both disciplines are also different from each other on a few dimensions. For example, personality psychologists are interested in individual differences, while social psychologists focus on common humanity and in knowing that how people view and affect one another. An illustrative example for the difference in both disciplines is that Personality psychologist may be interested in that why some individuals are more aggressive than other, whereas a social psychologist may be interested in knowing that how social situations can lead most individuals to act kindly, cruelly, to conform. Another difference is that as compared to personality psychology, social psychology has a brief history. Many famous theorists worked in the first half of 20th century, like Freud, Jung, Adler, Horney and Rogers.

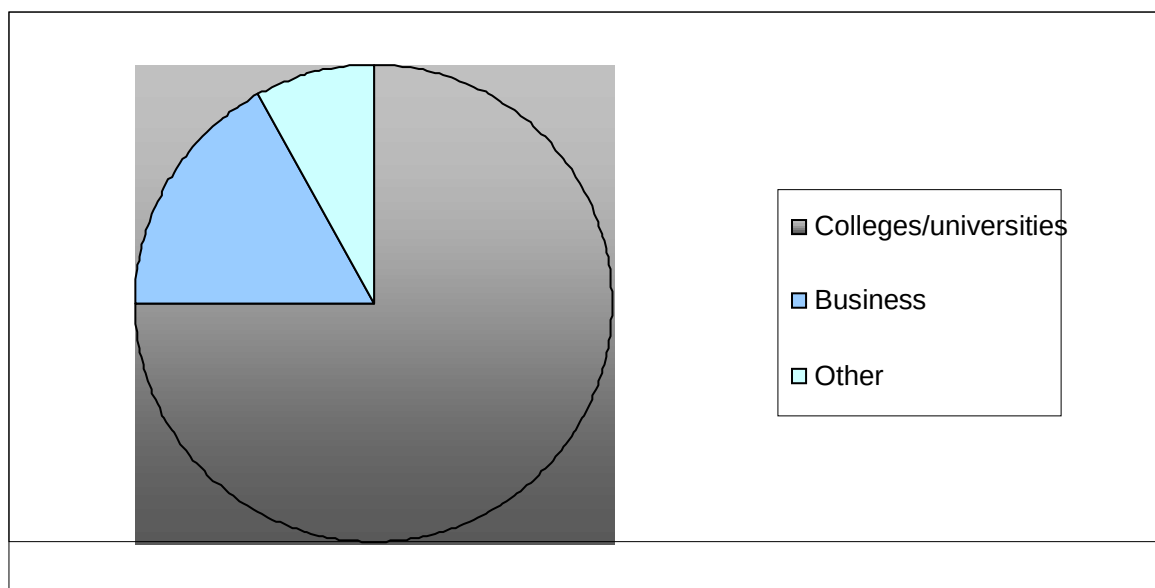
Social Psychology and Biology

Majority of the scientists agree that nature and nurture together form us. As area of a field is determined by its length and width, so do biology and experience together create us. There is no doubt that our inherited human nature predisposes us to behave in ways that helped our ancestors survive and reproduce. Nature also endows us with an enormous capacity to learn. However, social neuroscientists do not regard complex behaviour like helping and hurting to just neural or molecular mechanism. They hence indicate that to understand complex behaviour we must consider under-the-skin and between-skins influences

The Profession of Social Psychology

PhD Social psychologists

Majority of PhD level social psychologists (75%) are working in Colleges / universities, while a minority (17%) works in Business/government setting. The pie chart given below shows this more clearly.



M.Sc Social psychologists enjoy job diversity

The work distribution of M.A. level social psychologists is as under:

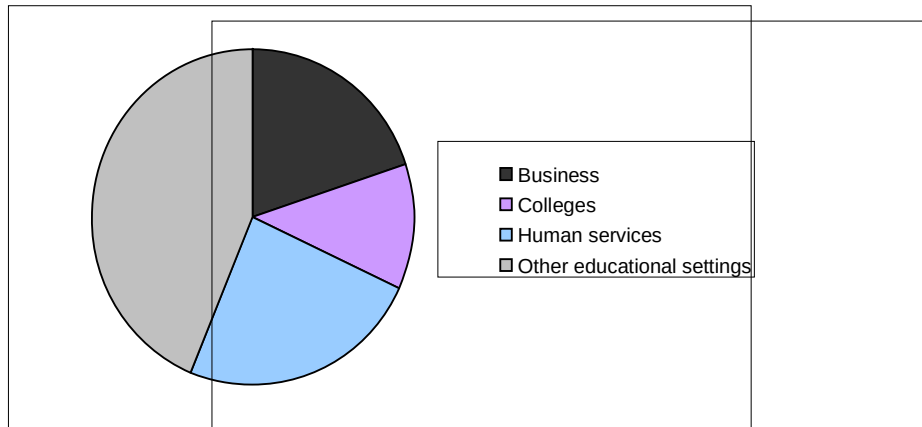
12%= 4-year colleges

44%= other non university academic settings

20%= business/ govt.

24%= human service fields (clinics, health agencies, etc.)

The following pie chart illustrates the same figures.



Current Trends:

Currently, social psychologists are involved in different kinds of works, e.g., researching in health psychology, environmental psychology, legal system, and investigating social factors in clinical psychology. In Pakistan, however, the role of social psychologist is not that diverse and mainly they are working in universities, and NGOs.

Applying Social Psychology

Social psychology had always intimate ties to the larger political and cultural spheres. It has addressed important social problems in past and present. It has always focused on real life problems, e.g., does media violence contribute to aggression in society; how social factors like family support can influence our susceptibility to disease, etc. The following examples show how social psychology has responded to current social problems of the time:

- World war II stimulated research on prejudice/conformity
- 1940-50s Civil war in US initiated work on prejudice/ stereotypes
- Higher violence/ crime rates in 1960-70s led to research on aggression.
- In 1980-1990s skyrocketing health care costs and growing awareness of behaviors contributing to disease led to research social factors in health.
- 9/11 event led to research on terrorism/ suicide bombing.
- October 8 2005 earthquake in Pakistan initiated research on social and psychological effects of disasters, and PTSD.

These examples illustrate that how with the changing trends and circumstances in society, research also changed its focus.

History of Social Psychology

Social psychology is a relatively young discipline. Although some work on it started at the end of 19th century, most of the growth in social psychology occurred after 1950s. The history of social psychology reveals its American roots. The following periods illustrate the history of social psychology:

- The early years (1884-1934)
- The coming of age (1935-1945)
- Rapid expansions (1946-1969)
- Crisis and re-assessment (1970-1984)
- An expanded global view (1985-present)

The Early Years: (1884-1934)

Norman Triplett at Indiana University can be considered the first empirical social scientist as he conducted the first social psychological experiment on that how the performance of a person does change when other people are present. He noticed that a bicycle racer's speed was faster when he was paced by other cyclists than when he was alone. Based on this observation, he devised the first exp. To learn what caused these different racing times, he asked children to wind

line on a finishing reel both in the presence of other children and alone. The results showed that children did faster when with other children. This experiment was published in 1897. This introduced the Experimental Method in social psychology. However, the credit to establish social psychology as a distinct discipline goes to William McDougall (an English) and Edward Ross (an American), who published the first books bearing this title. Although these two published books on social psychology, Social psychology still lacked a distinct identity. Moreover, there was no answer to the question that how does social psychology differ from other disciplines, and what are its methods of inquiry, etc.

Floyd Allport was the person who served this purpose. He wrote a third book on social psychology and indicated very clearly “I believe that only within the individual can we find the behavior mechanisms and consciousness which are fundamental in the interactions between individuals. There is no psychology of groups which is not essentially and entirely a psychology of individuals. psychology in all its branches is a science of the individual” (1924, p.4). He conducted studies on conformity, nonverbal communications, and social facilitation and demonstrated in his book that how carefully conducted research could provide insight into a wide range of social behaviors.

The Coming of Age: 1935-1945

First 3 decades of this century were spent in generating basic concepts and sound research methods in social psychology. Then two events occurred which played a dominant role in the development of social psychology at this critical juncture (World War II) in its history:

1. Great depression in the USA
2. Social and political upheaval in Europe

Following the stock market crash in 1929, many young psychologists were unable to find or hold jobs. Due to social forces, many adopted the liberal ideals of Roosevelt, or more radical views of communist or socialist parties. In 1936, these social psychologists established Society for the Psychological Study of Social Issues (SPSSI). They wanted to apply their newly developed theories and political activism to real-world problems.

The rise of fascism in Germany, Spain, and Italy created a strong anti-intellectual atmosphere in many of Europe's educational institutions. As a result, many leading social psychologists like Fritz Heider, Kurt Lewin, & Theodore Adorno, immigrated to America. There along with American social psychologists applied knowledge of human behaviour in a variety of war time programs: undermining of enemy morale; selection of officers for the office of strategic services, etc.

During this time of global strife, one of the most influential social psychologist was Kurt Lewin who was a Jewish refugee from Germany. He stood as the most influential social psychologist of his time. He talked about the debate of two faces of social psychology: pure and applied and indicated that “No research without action, and no action without research”. He also served as the president of SPSSI in 1941. By his death in 1947 he had provided many of social psychology's defining characteristics.

In postwar period, prospects were bright for social psychologists; they had started enjoying high stature in scientific community. Many of their mentors were European. They established new research facilities, secured govt. grants, and most importantly started training graduate students. These future social psychologists were white, male, and middle class

Social psychology, although flourishing in USA but war had virtually destroyed the discipline overseas. Postwar, USA emerged as the un-challenged world power, exported its material goods as well as social psychology.

Rapid Expansions (1946-1969)

With its infusion of European intellectuals and recently trained young American social psychologists, the mature science of social psychology expanded its theoretical and research base. A lot of research started on new dimensions. For example, Theodore Adorno and his colleagues (1950) wanted to know how a civilized society like Germany could fall under the influence of a dictator like Hitler. They studied the psychological parameters of the authoritarian personality. Some years later, Stanley Milgram (1963) extended this line of research in his now famous obedience experiments, which examined the conditions that make people more likely to obey destructive authority figures. Some psychologists also focused their attention on the influence

that group had on the individual (Asch, 1956) and of the power of persuasive communication (Hoveland et al., 1949). Arguably, the most significant line of research and theorizing during this time was

Leon Festinger's theory of cognitive dissonance (1957), which maintains that people's thoughts and actions are motivated by a desire to maintain cognitive consistency.

The decade of the 1960s was a time of turmoil in USA with the country caught in the rip of political assassinations, urban violence and social protests, and the Vietnam War. People were searching for constructive ways to change society for the better. Following this lead, social psychologists devoted research time on aggression, love, helping, and attraction. The groundbreaking research of Hatfield and Berscheid (1969) on interpersonal and romantic attraction was not only important in widening the scope of social psychological inquiry but it also generated considerable controversy outside the field. A number of public officials and ordinary citizens thought that social scientists need not try to understand the mysteries of romance.

During the 1960s the federal govt. of USA expanded attempts to cure societal ills with the guidance of social scientists.

Crisis and Reassessment: 1970-1984

After World War II, Theodore Newcomb (1951) expressed concern that expectations were greater than anything that could be delivered in the near future. As the usefulness and ethics of experimental research came under increased scrutiny, a "crises of confidence" emerged (Elms, 1975). At that time, accusations started coming from women and minorities that social psychology was reflecting biases of a white, male-dominated view of reality. Out of this crisis more vital and inclusive field of social psychology emerged.

Rigorous ethical standards were established and social psychology began moving toward more responsible position. Although experimental method still remained the method of choice, researchers started using correlational methods in research.

One final important development during this time period was the importing of ideas from cognitive psychology, which greatly enhanced theory and research in all areas of social psychology.

An expanded global view of social psychology: 1985-Present

In the 1970s both European and Latin American Social psychology Associations were formed. Social psychology overseas emphasized more on intergroup and societal variables in explaining social behavior, and began to reshape the discipline. Social psychologists around the world started exchanging ideas, and collaborated on multi-national studies (Fiske et al., 1998; Vala et al., 1996).

Research question were raised about behaviour as being "culture specific" or due to "shared evolutionary heritage". Although social psychology's professional centre of gravity still resides in the USA, European and third world social psychology offers the entire field opportunities to escape what some consider the limitations of this "gravitational pull" to perceive new worlds of reality (Shinha, 2003; Tam et al., 2003)

Contemporary social psychology continues the legacy of Kurt Lewin and SPSSI by applying knowledge to a wide arena of everyday life, such as law, health, education, sports and business.

Following a criticism on concentrating too much on negative social behavior and flaws in human nature (Krueger & Funder, 2004), current research is focusing on both constructive and destructive social behavior. In Pakistan, some work is also being conducted on positive dimensions of human social behaviour.

Readings

1. Franzoi, S.L. (2006). *Social Psychology*. New York: McGraw Hill. Chapter 1.
2. Lippa, R.A. (1994). *Introduction to Social Psychology*. Belmont: Brooks/Cole Publishing Company. Chapter 1.

LESSON 03**CONDUCTING RESEARCH IN SOCIAL PSYCHOLOGY****Aims:**

To make students understand how to conduct social psychology research using diverse methodologies.

Objectives:

1. Describe empirical research and scientific method
2. Discuss basic steps in conducting social psychology research

General Introduction of this topic spreading over six lectures

Conducting social psychology research will be complete in almost 6 lectures. Apart from discussing characteristics of empirical research and scientific method, this section of syllabus will concentrate on unfolding basic steps involved in conducting research. Starting from selection of research problem, and defining and explaining variables, it will concentrate on discussion about ethical issues, methods of data collection, and various research designs. While discussing various sampling techniques, representative sampling procedures will be stressed as an ideal. However, this will also be acknowledged through various actual research presentations that young white college students are over-represented in much of social research. Correlational and experimental approaches to the study of behavior are compared, as are laboratory and field research. Data sources, including self-report, behavioral observation, and archival are contrasted, with a new discussion of the pros and cons of Internet data collection. Sources of bias inherent in research are acknowledged, and this section concludes with the basic considerations of writing a scientific research report.

What is Scientific Research?

According to Aristotle, "The secret of success is to know something nobody else knows. This seems very appropriate as knowledge gives power and information which we obtain from research reduces uncertainty and ambiguity

Research can be defined as "Research is the method of asking and answering a question with a set of systematic procedures which assist researchers in avoiding biases".

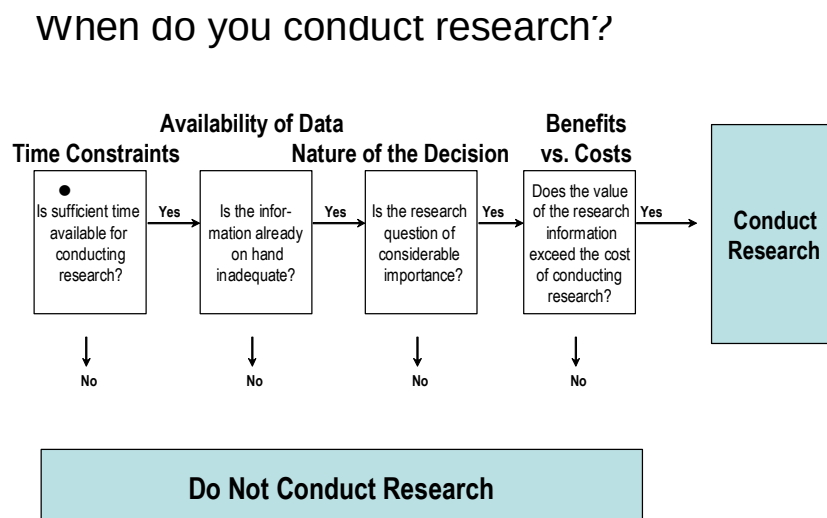
Characteristics of Empirical Research

- Well-planned
- Controlled for errors
- Internally and externally consistent
- Replicable

When do you conduct research?

The decision about conducting research depends on the cost and benefit analysis. The following diagrams 1 and 2 illustrate this more clearly whether to conduct research or not:

Figure 1



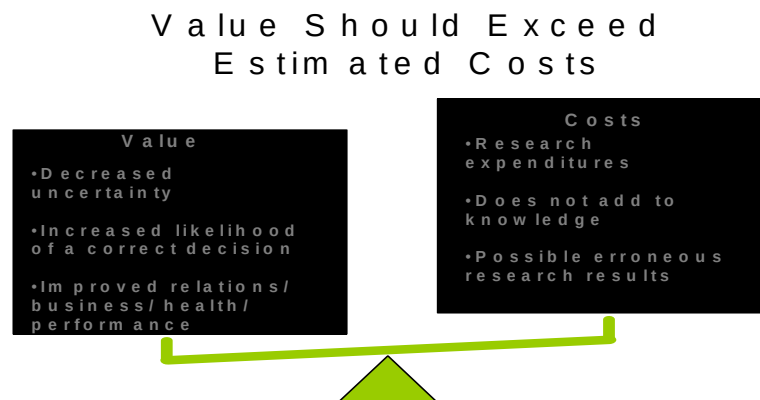


Figure 2

These diagrams show that the value of the research should exceed the estimated Costs involved in the research.

Social Psychology Research

- Research in social psychology poses challenges not found in other sciences because the behaviors of interests aren't as tangible as the elements found in a physicist's laboratory
- Compared to other disciplines, social psychology relies on a wide range of creative research methodologies, e.g., lab experiments, field studies, surveys, questionnaires, archival data

Scientific Method

Like all sciences, social psychology relies on the scientific method. After 100 years of its practice, Scientific method is still the basis for investigation, and is different from nonscientific method "everyday approach". For social psychologists to effectively study social behavior—be it basic or applied research—they must carefully plan and execute their research projects (Sansone et al, 2004). In doing so, social psychologists employ the **scientific method**, which consists of a set of procedures used to gather, analyze, and interpret information in a way that reduces error and leads to dependable generalizations. The characteristics of scientific method are as under:

- Requires a certain level of explanation
- Relies on empirical evidence rather than intuition: Scientific method is characterized by a reliance on empirical procedures, rather than intuition, and by an attempt to control those factors believed responsible for a phenomena.
- Relies on direct observation & experimentation

Goals of Scientific Method

- **Description:** Describing, classifying, cataloguing events and relationships. For example, describing events and relationships, by using nomothetic approach and quantitative analysis. Nomothetic approach seeks to identify the similarities rather than differences. Levine et al. (1990) desired to investigate "Pace of life" in various cultures and countries. They decided to indicate pedestrian walking speed and accuracy of a country's bank clocks, etc. to decide about the tempo of life of that nation. The results showed that the citizens of Japan had the fastest pace followed by American, while Indonesians appeared to be the slowest. Prediction
- **Prediction:** Description provides basis for prediction. Prediction when assessed by correlational relationships can not determine the causation. Examples of making predictions can be: prediction of later performance on the basis of early success; or "whether early deprivation can cause a deterioration in IQ"

- **Understanding:** Description and prediction are the only first steps in understanding a phenomenon. It is achieved when causes of a phenomenon are identified. Three important conditions are essential to understand causal inferences: time-order relationship, other explanations:
 1. Covariation of events: Understand what variables change in interaction to each other
 2. Time-order relationship: (the presumed cause must occur before the presumed effect)
 3. Elimination of possible explanations: Example: “active learning strategies help students learn”, other explanations could be motivation, I.Q., gender, etc.

Basic & Applied Research

Social psychologists conduct both *basic* and *applied research*. The goal in **basic research** is to simply increase knowledge about social behavior, knowledge for knowledge's sake (Fiske, 2004). No attempt is made to solve a specific social or psychological problem. In contrast, **applied research** is designed to increase the understanding of and solutions to real-world problems by using current social psychological knowledge (Maruyama, 2004). Although many social psychologists label themselves as either basic or applied researchers, the efforts of one group often influence those of the other. Kurt Lewin resolves this controversy of the relative importance of applied and pure research by indicating that “no action without research, no research without action”.

THE RESEARCH PROCESS

The Research Process Involves a Series of Sequential Steps:

For social psychologists to effectively study social behavior—be it basic or applied research—they must carefully plan and execute their research projects (Sansone et al, 2004). In doing so, social psychologists employ the **scientific method**. This entire process of scientific inquiry unfolds in eight basic steps.

1. Develop a research question & review literature
2. Develop a research theory/ hypothesis
3. Variables and operational definitions
4. Choose a research design
5. Evaluate the ethics
6. Collect data
7. Analyze data and form conclusions
8. Report research results

Step 1. Develop a research Question & review literature

Research ideas do not develop in a vacuum. In selecting a topic to study, inspiration could come from someone else's research, from an incident in the daily news, or from some personal experience in the researcher's own life. Social psychologists generally investigate topics that have relevance to their own lives and culture.

Once a topic has been chosen, the researcher must search the scientific literature to determine whether prior investigations of the topic exist. The findings from these previous studies generally shape the course of the current investigation. Today, literature searches can be vastly accelerated by using a number of computer-based searching programs that catalog even the most recently published studies. In addition, social psychologists can often instantly obtain unpublished articles from researchers at other universities either through next computer networks or fax machines.

Important points in selection of question:

- It is important to go beyond a general description of a problem by narrowing and zeroing in on what you want to study.

- Generate questions – Read theories on your topic, consider own experience, think of exceptions, note inconsistencies in previous research
- Scientific theory guides research by suggesting testable hypotheses.
- A real world problem: incident/ news/ personal experience/
- The research question usually has a relevance to researcher's culture and experience

The research question comes from:

- Previous research
- Real world

Sources of Literature:

- Books
- Research Articles
- Electronic databases, e.g., PsycINFO, etc.
- Unpublished material

Reference

3. Franzoi, S.L. (2006). *Social Psychology*. New York: McGraw Hill. Chapter 2.

LESSON 04**CONDUCTING RESEARCH IN SOCIAL PSYCHOLOGY:****Aims:**

To make students understand how to conduct social psychology research using diverse scientific methodologies.

Objectives:

- Describe empirical research and scientific method
- Discuss basic steps in conducting social psychology research

RESEARCH PROCESS**Step 1: Selection of research question**

Sternberg (1997) indicates that some questions are simply not worth asking. He suggests that we should ask several questions before deciding the question is good one or not:

- Is my research Question a Good One
- Why this question be scientifically important?
- What is the scope of this question?
- What are the likely outcomes if I carry out this question?
- Contribution to knowledge?
- Why would anyone be interested in the results obtained by asking and answering this question?

2. Develop a theory & hypothesis**STEP 2: DEVELOP A THEORY AND HYPOTHESES**

The questions of interest usually revolve around whether some phenomenon can be explained by a particular principle or theory. A **theory** is an organized system of ideas that seeks to explain why two or more events are related. What makes a good theory depends on a number of factors. The most salient factor to the working scientist is *the predictive accuracy* of the theory: can it reliably predict behavior? A second necessary factor is *internal coherence*—there should not be any logical inconsistencies or unexplained coincidences among any of the theoretical ideas. A third characteristic of a good theory is that it should be *economical*, meaning that it only contains the principles or concepts necessary to explain the phenomenon in question and no more. Finally, a fourth and very important quality in a good theory is fertility the ability to fire the imagination of other scientists so that the ideas in the theory are tested and extended to a wide variety of social behavior.

The way that scientists determine the predictive accuracy of a theory is by formulating hypotheses. **Hypotheses** are specific propositions or expectations about the nature of things derived from a theory — they are the logical implications of the theory. According to Stanovich (1988), theories that have withstood the test of time have had a lot of hypotheses confirmed.

Example:

Theory: Exposure to a lot of TV violence is detrimental to children's social development

Hypothesis: Individuals who watch a great deal of TV violence during childhood will be more physically aggressive in adulthood than individual who watch little TV violence

Step 3: Variables and Operational definitions are very precise descriptions of how the variables have been quantified so that they can be measured.

In all scientific methods, social psychologists seek to determine the nature of the relationship between two or more factors, called **variables** because they are things that can be measured and that can vary. Two types of variables are used in hypothesis: dependent & independent variables. When scientists describe their variables, they do so by using **operational definitions**.

Examples of translating Concepts into Operations

- “Absence makes the heart grow fonder”
- “Media violence increases aggression”

We need to transform our conceptual variables into operational variables. For example, we have to clearly define what we mean by “absence” and “growing fonder”, etc.

Example 2:

Example from Bandura’s study (1965)

Exposure to successful aggressive models induces aggressive behaviour in the observer.

Hypothesis: Children who watch a model are either reinforced or given no consequence for being aggressive will be more likely to imitate the model than when the model is punished for being aggressive.

Operational Definitions:

Reinforcement: the model being given candy and soft drinks along with words of praise for a superb performance.

Punishment:

Another adult shaking a menacing finger at the aggressive model and saying, "Hey, you big bully. You quit picking on that clown. I won't tolerate it."

Relationship between concept, hypothesis, and operational definition

Table 1 illustrates the relationship between theory, hypothesis and operational

Step 4: Research Methods

After developing a theory and hypotheses, researchers must next select a scientific method that allows the hypotheses to be tested in a way that minimizes error and leads to dependable generalizations. The three primary scientific methods used by social psychologist are *observational*, *Correlational*, and *experimental*.

1. Correlational
2. Observational
3. Experimental

Relationship between theories, hypothesis, and operational definition

CONCEPT REVIEW		
Theories, Hypotheses, and Operational Definitions		
Concept	Description	Example
Theories	Explanations of why an outcome occurs	Individuals' fear of being punished if they do not obey causes obedience.
Hypotheses	Predictions about what should happen if a theory is valid	Increasing individuals' fear of being punished if they do not obey will increase obedience.
Operational definitions	Specific, observable responses used to measure concepts	Threatening participants with receiving electric shocks themselves if they do not obey will increase the severity of shock they administer in a procedure paralleling the one in Milgram's research.

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Step 5: Evaluate Ethics

Conducting research always involves a consideration between the values of doing the research versus the impact on subjects: “cost/benefit analysis”

American Psychological Association requires the following requirements for conducting a research:

- Informed consent: voluntary participation with full understanding of the possible risk factors involved
- Anonymity: when neither the researcher nor the reader can identify a given response with a given respondent
- Protection from harm: Put respondent’s well-being first

- Confidentiality: when the researcher can identify a given person's response but not to do so publicly.
- Minimize deception: Deception is usually essential in order not to alter the respondents' responses; Deception cannot be used about aspects of research that would affect participant's willingness to participate.
- Debriefing: interviewing subjects to learn about their experience of participation.

Communicate results of study

Milgram's Experiment:

Milgram's experiment published in 1963 provided a very controversial experiment regarding ethical issues. The article was entitled: "Be a good boy & do as u r told to do"

In the 1960s and 1970s, the issue of research ethics was upper-most in the minds of social psychologists because of a few controversial studies that appeared to put participants at risk for psychological harm (Milgram, 1963; Zimbardo, 1972). The most controversial of these studies were Stanley Milgram's obedience experiments, in which volunteers agreed to act as teachers in a learning experiment that in actuality was a study of obedience.

Although this study and others of its kind asked important questions about social behavior, serious concerns were raised about whether the significance of the research topics justified exposing participants to potentially harmful psychological consequences.

Figure 1: Research participant working on shock generator

- Stanley Milgram wanted some explanations for the horrors of world war II when six million Jews, gypsies, and homosexuals were slaughtered by the Nazis. He designed an experiment to measure obedience to know why Germans were particularly obedient.
- Basic design was to order a subject to administer an electric shock to another person and to see how far they would go with this procedure.
- Created an impressive 'shock generator' with 30 switches marked clearly in 15 volt increments from 15 to 450 volts; verbal labels from slight shock to danger (severe). The phony generator had buzzers, lights that flashed and dials that moved; all appeared authentic.
- He found out that obedience to authority was not a feature of German culture but a seemingly universal feature of human behaviour. He published an article "Be a good boy and do as you are told"
- This experiment, although no shocks given, the victim's cries were taped, was very controversial as it did not satisfy ethical considerations of informed consent. procedure created extraordinary tension; participants appeared very stressed which showed up with their nervous laugh, tension, fits of laugh
- Of 40 subjects all obeyed up to 300 volts, at which 5 refused and 26 continued to the end.



The primary criticism on such experiments is that such deception could lead to a loss of trust in social scientists

Analysis of Milgram's Study

- Diana Baumrind's criticism regarding psychological harms to the participants (1993): She found it difficult to understand the similarity between Hitler's Germany and Milgram's lab. Hitler's subordinates thought that they were doing the great job finishing the subhumans, while this experiment according to Diana had no parallel with that situation.

Milgram's Reply:

- Experiment investigated a very important issue
- Procedure was defined to the subject in a way that supported their decision to disobey
- Subjects were debriefed
- 84% were glad to participate
- 75% indicated that they had learned something of personal importance
- Subjects received a written report

Milgram's Conclusion

"This experiment strengthened my belief that man should avoid harm to his fellow men even at the risk of violating authority"

Current Ethical Guidelines

In 1974 the U.S. government established institutional review boards (IRBs) for research involving human participants. These reviewing bodies, which are composed of scientists, medical professionals, clergy, and other community members, who make sure that the welfare of human participants is protected.

In 1982, the American Psychological Association published guidelines focusing on the **risk/benefit ratio**.

Step 6: Collect Data

When the IRB has granted approval, it is time to collect data from your sample. A **sample** is a group of people who are selected to participate in a given study. The people who are selected to participate in the study come from a **population**, which consists of all the members of an identifiable group from which a sample is drawn. The closer a sample is in representing the population, the greater confidence researchers have in generalizing their findings beyond the sample.

Regarding the data collected from your sample of participants, there are two broad categories: *qualitative* and *quantitative*. Qualitative data exists in a nonnumeric form, such as a scientist's narrative report of a conversation between two people. In contrast, quantitative data is numerical.

A **sample** is a group of people who are selected to participate in a research study.

Population consists of all the members of an identifiable group from which a sample is drawn.

The people who are selected to participate in the study come from a **population**

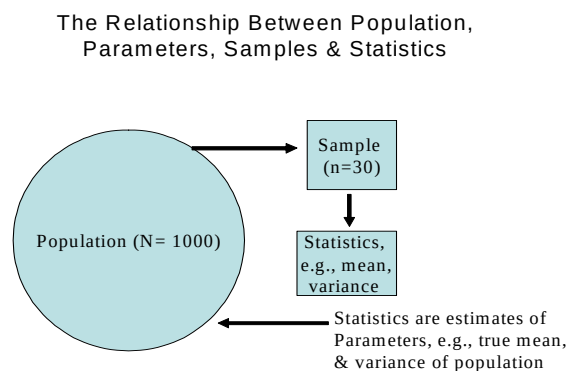
Population can be events, people or things

Figure 2: The Relationship between Population, Parameters, Samples & Statistics

Some important points about population and sample:

1. Population is the total number of subjects, events, or objects
2. Parameters are population characteristics
3. Sample is a subset of the population
4. Statistics are estimates of population parameters.
5. It is important to know the ability to generalize from a sample to the population which critically depends on the representativeness of the sample.

Individuals in a population differ from each other, e.g., one population may have 40%



males, and 60% females, while the other could have a ratio of 70 to 30. A sample is representative of the population to the extent it exhibits the same distribution of characteristics as the population.

Sampling Strategies

Probability samples: when each and every element has an equal chance of being included

- Simple random: Simple Random: All items in selected population stand an equal chance of inclusion in the sample; subjects usually chosen by random numbers
- Systematic random: Sample selected according to some regular pattern; every tenth or so.
- Stratified: include quotas of population/ subgroups (strata), gender, ethnic distribution, etc. to ensue an adequate sample of each. Usually population parameters are obtained from census. Representative random sampling of all strata must be taken.
- Cluster: initially a convenient group is selected but this is then sub sampled randomly. Any generalization outside the population actually sampled should be cautious.
- Hybrid or “multistage selection”: Initially based on a cluster of potential sampling frames (several areas, or institutions). One of them is randomly chosen, then individuals are randomly chosen from within the chosen sampling frame (institution, e.g.). Generalization outside actually sampled population avoided.

Reference

1. Franzoi, S.L. (2006). *Social Psychology*. New York: McGraw Hill. Chapter 2.

LESSON 05**CONDUCTING RESEARCH IN SOCIAL PSYCHOLOGY RESEARCH PROCESS,
DESIGNS AND METHODS (CONTINUED)****Aims:**

To make students understand how to conduct social psychology research using diverse scientific methodologies.

Objectives:

- Describe empirical research and scientific method
- Discuss basic steps in conducting social psychology research
- Discuss important research designs
- Describe observational research method

RESEARCH PROCESS**Step 6: Collect Data**

In the previous lecture relationship between population and sample was described. Regarding different sampling strategies, probability sampling, where each and every member of the population has an equal chance of being included, was discussed. Hence, this lecture will start from Non-probability sampling techniques, which can not guarantee the representativeness of the sample of its base population.

Non-probability samples: May not be representative; validity of inferences about population characteristics is neither assumed nor testable

1. Purposive sampling: the investigator selects the elements to be included in the sample on the basis of their special characteristics.
2. Accidental sampling: involves selecting respondents primarily on the basis of their availability and willingness to respond, like newspaper interviews of people on the streets, their comments are interesting but not necessarily representative of the wider community:
3. Convenience sampling: group composition is heavily biased and results shall never be generalized. Commonly used in pilot studies.
4. Call-in surveys: usually used by TV and radio shows to poll the views of their audience. People, who are willing to call, pay the calls make the sample. Crossen (1994) compares the results obtained by a random sample survey, and a call-in survey. The question was, “should UN headquarter stay in the USA or not?”. In the Call-in survey, a solid majority, 67%, of 1,86,000 callers replied that it should stay out of USA, while a clear majority, 72% of survey subjects wanted in the USA.). Despite a massive sample size, the call-in survey can not be considered representative.

Types of Data

Qualitative data exists in a nonnumeric form

Quantitative data is numerical.

Techniques of data collection

- Self reports: Useful to measure important subjective states, e.g., attitudes, emotions, and perceptions. However, they rely on people’s own descriptions of internal states. Because of this drawback some people prefer direct observation
- Direct observations
- Archival information (accumulated records): court records, newspaper (my studies), census, govt. documents)

These techniques are not mutually exclusive

7. Analyze the data and Reevaluate the theory

Once the data have been collected, the first part of the 7th step is to conduct data analysis, which usually requires extensive knowledge of statistical procedures and computer software packages. The two basic kinds of statistics are descriptive and inferential.

Types of statistics

- Descriptive Statistics merely summarize and describe the behavior or characteristics of a particular sample of participants in a study.
- Inferential statistics move beyond mere description to make inferences about the larger population from which the sample was drawn.

After data analysis determines whether the hypotheses successfully predicted the outcome of the study, researchers next reevaluate the theory. Were the research hypotheses supported by the data, which thereby supports the validity of the theory? If the data do not support the study's hypotheses, or if only some of the hypotheses were supported, the theory probably needs revising.

Example: Hoveland and Sears (1940) found significant correlation between economic frustration and lynching of black by white people in Old South. Analysis of data also determines the validity of theory.

Step 8: Report the Results

"If research was not "written up," did it really occur?

Three ways to disseminate knowledge:

- Publishing articles in scientific journals
- Making presentations at professional meetings
- Personally informing other researchers

Parts of a research article

- Title
- Authors and their affiliations
- Abstract
- Introduction
- Method
- Results
- Discussion
- Conclusions
- References
- Tables
- Figures
- Appendices (if any)
- Footnotes (including Author Note)

Research Designs

It is almost always helpful to make a firm distinction between designs based on looking for differences between groups and those looking for relationships/ associations between variables (Cohen & Holiday, 1982). This distinction makes the subsequent choice of appropriate analyses and statistics much more straightforward.

Important Research Designs

There are 3 important research designs.

1. Descriptive investigations: Non-experimental designs geared towards describing phenomena. e.g., a quantitative study to determine the normal range of body temperature of a population; a qualitative study of the environment in an intensive care unit.

2. Designs based on differences between groups

- **Independent/ unrelated groups:** ideally created by random independent sampling, or by post-hoc division.
- **Dependent/ related groups:** groups linked by some factor which means that the values of one group are likely to influence the others (correlated); a clear example is the use of repeated-measures design to assess change over time. Repeated-measure are very popular designs as they require less subjects as they act as their own control. Moreover, within subject variability stays the same under all repeated conditions. However, they have problems of order effect, which can be overcome by counterbalancing, a strategy when half of the group is tested before (in condition 1), and the other half is tested first in the 2nd condition, and the order is reversed for both groups. A similar design to repeated/ dependent group design is matched samples design, where subjects are so closely matched across conditions that they are related.

3. Designs based on association between variables: Also used in experimental situations when the level of a variable is manipulated and associated change in the other variable is investigated, e.g., effect of punishment and reward on performance.

Extensions of earlier 3 designs:

- **Longitudinal designs:** Really an extension of a simple repeated measure design; subjects or events are studied in order to investigate change over prolonged periods of time, as in some case studies. It may also be called a kind of extended dependent group design.
- **Mixed designs** are combinations of independent and dependent group designs, hence having the characteristics of both.

Most Common Research Methods

The most commonly used research methods used in social psychology research are:

- Observational research
- Correlational research: Surveys
- Experimental Methods

Observational Research

Description Is the Goal of Observational Research

To understand behavior so that it can be predicted, controlled, or explained, a scientist must first describe it accurately. **Observational** research is a scientific method involving systematic qualitative and/or quantitative descriptions of behavior. In collecting this data, the scientific observer would not try to manipulate (that is, change) the behavior under study but would simply record it. Description is the primary goal here. The common types of observational methods employed by social psychologists are *naturalistic observation*, *participant observation*, and *archival research*.

Characteristics of observational research

- Simply record the behaviour, don't attempt to change it
- High in validity: as the observed behaviour is real, and actual sample of target behaviour rather than a sign of behavior .e.g., observation of prosocial behaviour at the time of real accident on the road.
- High in resource consumption: many apparatus or instruments may be required, time-consuming, difficult to quantify

Essentials of Observation

1. Functional Analysis (Skinner, 1972) is an essential of observation consisting on:

- Antecedent
- Behavior
- Consequence

2. Categories of behaviour

Categories of target behaviour need to be very clearly described and then operationally defined for better understanding and measurement. For example, Interpersonal interaction could have following further categories: initiates conversation, maintains conversation, maintains eye contact, among others, etc.

Categories of Aggressive behaviour:

Physical or verbal?

Physical: Pushing, hitting, kicking, punching, pinching, biting, throwing things, slapping, etc.

Verbal: Staring, frowning, cursing, speaking in a threatening way, name calling, etc

Readings

2. Franzoi, S.L. (2006). *Social Psychology*. New York: McGraw Hill. Chapter 2.

LESSON 06**CONDUCTING RESEARCH IN SOCIAL PSYCHOLOGY
OBSERVATIONAL METHOD****Aims:**

To make students understand how to conduct social psychology research using diverse scientific methodologies.

Objectives:

Describe observational research method and its types

Link to previous lecture

In the previous lecture, essentials of observation, like identifying and defining categories of target behaviour were discussed. This lecture will start with operational definition of a few more examples.

Essentials: Operational Definition

Compliance: A person immediately does what is asked of him or her

Humiliate: making fun of, shames or embarrass the individual intentionally

Other Essentials

- Format? Format: frequency, intensity, or duration?
- Recording: by writing in diaries, sophisticated instruments on kind of wrist watches, video, audio?
- Validity: determined by validity of categories, and inter-rater reliability (known as Kappa correlation)

Common types of observational methods

- Naturalistic observation
- Participant observation
- Archival research

Naturalistic observation is a form of observational method that investigates behavior in its natural environment (Lofland & Lofland, 1995). In such naturalistic studies, observers usually remain as unobtrusive as possible, so that their presence does not influence the behavior under study. In some observational studies, researchers are not present at all during data collection—hidden video cameras record the events. Later, researchers analyze the behaviors being investigated

Advantages:

- Behaviour remains unobtrusive
- Besides being used as the primary scientific method, also can be used during the initial phases of a project

PARTICIPANT OBSERVATION

Another type of observational method is **participant observation**. Here, as in naturalistic observation, a researcher records behavior as it occurs in its natural environment but does so as a participant of the group being studied (Whyte, 1994). One of the chief benefits of this research strategy is that it allows investigators to get closer to what they are studying than any other method. An example is Leon Festinger's study (1957) on cognitive dissonance to observe the Chicago based doomsday cult. Mrs. Keetch, leader of the cult, claimed that she was in contact with the aliens from outer space. She also claimed that world will end on 21st December; the only survivors will be the cult. It was one of the first tests of cog. dissonance theory that people's

thoughts and actions are motivated by a desire to maintain cognitive consistency. By participant observers, they found that people of cult rather than leaving the group believed that the group had saved the world. Other researchers have used this to conduct field experiments to investigate "when prophecy fails"

Advantages

Listed below are four advantages of both naturalistic and participant observation research (Hong & Duff, 2002; Weick, 1985):

1. Allow researchers the opportunity to watch behavior in its "wholeness," providing the full context in which to understand it.
2. Provide researchers the opportunity to record rare events that may never occur in a controlled laboratory environment.
3. Allow researchers the opportunity to systematically record events that were previously seen only by nonscientists.
4. Allow researchers to observe events that would be too risky, dangerous, or unethical to create in the laboratory.

Problems of observation

Despite numerous benefits in using naturalistic and participant observation methods, some problems also bear mentioning.

- First, due to the absence of control that researchers have in such studies, conclusions must be drawn very cautiously.
- A second problem is **observer bias**, which occurs when scientists' preconceived ideas about what they are studying affect the nature of their observations. Bias occurs when scientists' preconceived ideas about what they are studying affect the nature of their observations; e.g., believing ahead of time that men are aggressive than women; inter-rater reliability and clear definitions of aggression will help
- A third potential problem facing you in naturalistic and participant observation research is that your presence can significantly alter the behavior of those being studied and thus taint the data.
- Finally, one last problem posed by these types of observational methods is that, more than any other scientific methods, they pose the most ethical problems involving invasion of others' privacy.

ARCHIVAL RESEARCH

The third observational method that we will discuss is **archival research**, which examines the already-existing records of an individual, group, or culture. Examples of archival material include diaries, music lyrics, television programs, census information, novels, and newspapers.

A popular procedure for evaluating information in archives is *content analysis*, a technique in which two or more people (called judges), working independently, count words, sentences, ideas, or whatever other category of information is of interest.

Archival research is often used to examine the beliefs, values, and interests of a culture.

Example: Study (1994-7) of Federman (1998)

A total of 80 researchers at 4 universities assessed TV violence in 2700 randomly selected programs from 6.00 a.m. To 11.00 p.m. 2000 hours.

Definition of Violence: As any depiction of physical force, or the credible threat of such force, intended to harm an animate being/group.

Areas covered:

- How characters reacted
- Context in the presentation of violence
- Whether violence interactions showed pain, realistic injury, and long term consequences

Study Results

- Violence was a popular theme
- More than 60% of shows contained some violence
- Premium cable channels had greater violence shows (85%) than public TV programs (18%).
- Most incidents were sanitized
- Violence often glamorized except in 4% of the cases
- Children programs showed violence in a humorous context (67%)
- Conclusive evidence from combined sources

LESSON 07**CONDUCTING RESEARCH IN SOCIAL PSYCHOLOGY****CORRELATIONAL METHOD:****Aims:**

To make students understand how to conduct social psychology research using diverse scientific methodologies.

Objectives:

- Describe correlational research method
- Understand causal and effect relationships in correlational research
- Discuss survey method as the most commonly used method of correlational research
- Understand designs used in surveys

Correlational Research

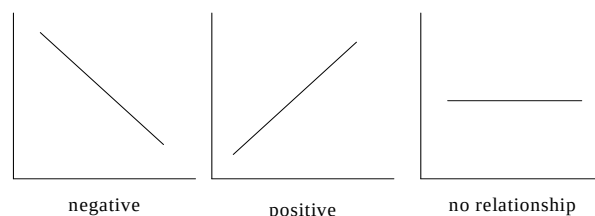
Besides describing behavior, social psychologists are also interested in learning whether two or more variables are related, and if so, how strongly. When changes in one variable relate to changes in another variable, we say that they *correlate*. **Correlational research** assesses the nature of the relationship between two or more variables that are not controlled by the researcher. In studying the relationship between children's TV viewing habits and their aggressive behavior, researchers using the correlational method do not try to influence how much time any of the children in the study actually spend viewing violent shows. Instead, they merely gather information on the amount of time the children spend watching such programs and their degree of aggressive behavior, and then determine how these two variables correlate. A correlation assesses the extent to which two variables covary.

Correlation indicates?

- Direction
- Magnitude of a relationship

The direction and strength of the relationship between two variables are described by the statistical measure known as the **correlation coefficient** (r). *Strength Basis of prediction*

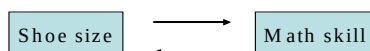
This correlation coefficient can range from -1.00 to +1.00 (perfect correlations). Figure 1 demonstrates positive and negative relationships, along with zero or no relationship.

Direction of Relationship**Figure 1****Correlation & Causality**

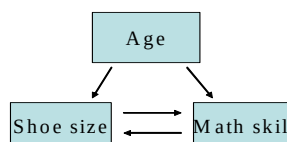
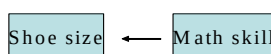
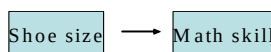
Cannot be used to determine “cause and effect”
correlation between being outgoing and satisfied with life;

An Spurious Relationship

- Observed correlation (+ direct r)



- Spurious causal relationship Actual causal relation



Two problems in determining causality:

- *reverse-causality problem* (aggressive boys)
- *third-variable problem*: Spurious relationship

Figure 3: An example of Spurious Relationship

Correlation: Path Analysis: A statistical technique is used to understand potential causes of correlational relationships

Figure 4 illustrates the direct relation between parental support and getting adjusted in college, while a mediating variable, approach coping, is also indirectly affecting these two links.

Figure 4: Path Analysis**SURVEYS**

Although studying the relationships among variables can be done by directly observing behavior or examining archived information, it is often accomplished by asking people carefully constructed questions. **Surveys** are structured sets of questions or statements given to a group of people to measure their attitudes, beliefs, values, or behavioral tendencies (Lavrakas, 1993; Schuman, 2002).

The four major survey techniques are face-to-face surveys, written surveys, phone surveys, and computer surveys. The face-to-face format provides highly detailed information and allows researchers the best opportunity to clarify any unclear questions. However, it is costly and there is always the possibility that people's responses might be influenced by the interviewer's presence. Written, phone, and computer surveys eliminate such interviewer bias and are much less expensive.

An important consideration in constructing surveys involves how questions are asked. Survey questions usually are either open-ended or closed-ended.

An *open-ended question* requires a response that must have more than just a yes or no answer—research participants provide a narrative response. A closed-ended question, in contrast, is answered with a yes or no, or by choosing a single response from several alternatives. Closed-ended questions are the quickest and easiest to score. In contrast, open-ended questions may provide information from respondents that might be missed with closed-ended questions. However, open-ended responses require coding by carefully trained judges and this is a time-consuming process.

One of the most important considerations in conducting surveys—as well as when using other methods—is getting responses from people who represent the population as a whole. This *representative sample* is often obtained through **random selection**, which is a procedure in which everyone in the population has an equal chance of being selected for the sample. As long as a sample is selected randomly, you are reasonably assured that the data will represent the overall population. However, when samples are not randomly selected, drawing conclusions from the data can lead to serious errors.

Finally, one last problem in conducting survey research is **social desirability bias**, which occurs when people respond to survey questions by trying to portray them in a favorable light rather than responding in an accurate and truthful manner

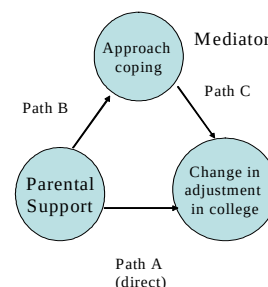
Surveys are structured sets of questions or statements given to a group of people to measure their attitudes, beliefs, values, or behavioral tendencies

Types of surveys:

- *Face-to-face surveys*
- *Written surveys*
- *Phone surveys*

Correlation: Path Analysis

- A statistical technique used to understand potential causes of correlational relationships



Valentiner et al., 1994

- *Computer surveys.*

Questions in Surveys

Types of questions:

- Closed-ended questions
- Open-ended questions

Examples

Closed-ended: Do you enjoy chatting online?

Response: Yes _____ No _____

-How much you enjoy chatting online?

Likert Scales:

Birth control should be absolutely prohibited?

Strongly disagree

1 2 3 4 5

strongly agree

2. Birth control is a legitimate health measure?

Strongly disagree

1 2 3 4 5

strongly agree

Social Psychology-Lecture 2: e.g., Likert Scale

Open-ended: Why do you like (or not enjoy) chatting online?

Response _____

Conclusion: Usually researchers attempt to utilize the strengths of both types; providing some alternatives, and also giving opportunity to write response of their own choice.

Schuman et al conducted a survey in USA to identify the most important problems faced by the country; from responses, they chose 4 problems only chosen by less than 3% of population; in another survey they provided these four problems with an open-ended choice; 60% selected one of the rare problems; concluded that respondents may not brain storm, are lazy, and take survey causally.

Order & format of Questionnaires

- Start with easy, salient and nonthreatening questions
- Avoid beginning with demographic and open-ended questionnaire
- Funneling procedure: start with more general and move to more specific questions
- Where appropriate, follow a chronological order, e.g., in job dates, case histories, etc.
- Only use 'filter' questions when unavoidable: Only use 'filter' questions (e.g., if yes, go to 31, if no, to 14) when unavoidable: it is likely that respondent may answer in such a way as to reduce the total number of questions.
- Avoid using double negatives.
- In face-to-face interviews, provide cards to show the scale

Threatening Questions

How to ask? "Did you kill your wife" (Barton, 1958)

1. The casual approach

"Do you happen to have murdered your wife?"

2. The numbered card

Would you please tick the number on this card which corresponds to what happened to your wife?

The natural death

I killed her

Other (what?)

The everyday approach
 “As you know many people have been killing their wives these days. Do you happen to have killed yours?”

The other people approach

Do you know any people who have murdered their wives?
 How about yourself?

The Kinsey technique

Stare firmly into respondents and ask in a matter of fact way:
 “Did you ever kill your wife?”

Remember to put such question at the end of the interview

Important considerations in conducting surveys

- **Representative sample** obtained through **random selection**
- Social desirability bias should be minimized: Social desirability bias, which occurs when people respond to survey questions by trying to portray themselves in a favorable light rather than responding in an accurate and truthful manner

Designs in Surveys

Survey research is carried out according to an overall plan - a research design

Cross-sectional design: In Cross-sectional designs, one or more samples are drawn at one point in time; e.g., groups of different ages

Longitudinal design

Trend studies/ Successive samples: Different samples of respondents from the population complete the survey over a time period; they do not allow researcher to study changes in a population over time. A problem occurs when the samples drawn are not comparable; change in values of students, whether contemporary citizens are more informed than citizens of an earlier generation.

Cohorts’ studies (usually age group) typically, a cohort is an age group, but may refer to other groups also, like people who got married during 1940.

Panel studies: the same respondents are surveyed over time (at several points in time) in order to examine changes in individual respondents; within subject variability is reduced; Practice effect and drop outs are there. Moreover, if time points are more, then it is a massive effort

Estimating sample size in surveys:

Figure 5 indicates that 2 considerations shall be in mind while deciding about number of people in one survey:

1. Work-out number of variables: 4 here
2. Establish minimum cell size

Estimating sample size required

Marital Status	Age	Male		Female	
		Working	Unempl.	Working	Unempl.
Married	< 20	10	10	10	10
	21-40	10	10	10	10
	41-60	10	10	10	10
	60+	10	10	10	10
Not married	< 20	10	10	10	10
	21-40	10	10	10	10
	41-60	10	10	10	10
	60+	10	10	10	10
Total Required = 2 x 2 x 2 x 2 x 4 = 32 x 10 = 320					

LESSON 08**CONDUCTING RESEARCH IN SOCIAL PSYCHOLOGY
EXPERIMENTAL METHOD****Aims:**

To make students understand how to conduct social psychology research using diverse scientific methodologies.

Objectives:

- Describe experimental research method
- Describe basic experimental design
- Understand differences between field and laboratory research methods
- Understand experimental research designs
- Understand complex laboratory designs

Experimental methods

Experimental methods are research designs to examine cause-effect relationships.

The variable that is manipulated is called the independent variable, while the variable whose changes are considered to be the effect of the manipulated changes in the independent variable is called the dependent variable (**e.g., varying lighting conditions and performance of students**)

Experimental and control groups are two main groups used in experimental methods

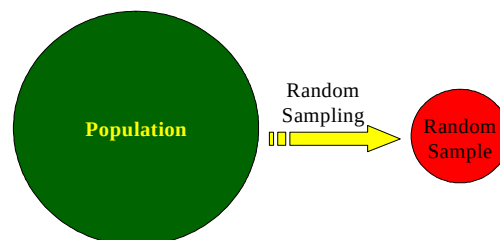
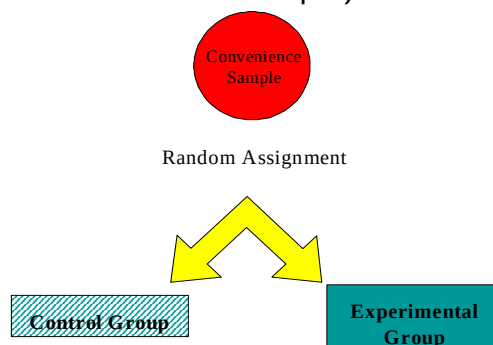
Basic Experimental Design

Figure 1 illustrates a basic experimental design using random sampling procedure

Figure 1

Unfortunately, we are seldom able to obtain such a sample. We must, therefore, often rely on using subjects who are readily available -a convenience sample - and then split them into two groups using a technique called “random assignment.”

Figure 2 illustrates a basic experimental design using cluster sampling technique, as mentioned above.

Basic Experimental Design (simple, syst.)**Basic Experimental Design (cluster sample)**

Basic Experimental Design

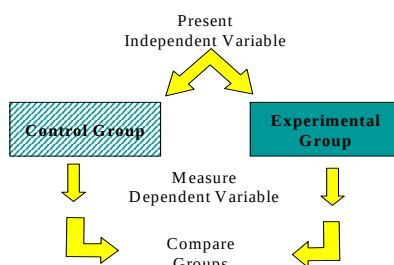
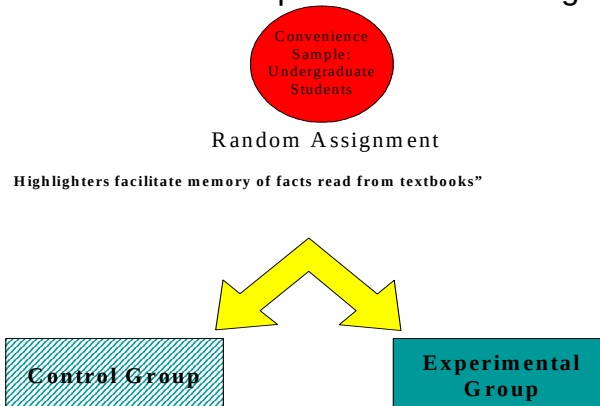


Figure 3 illustrates the use of control and experimental groups and the manipulation of independent variable

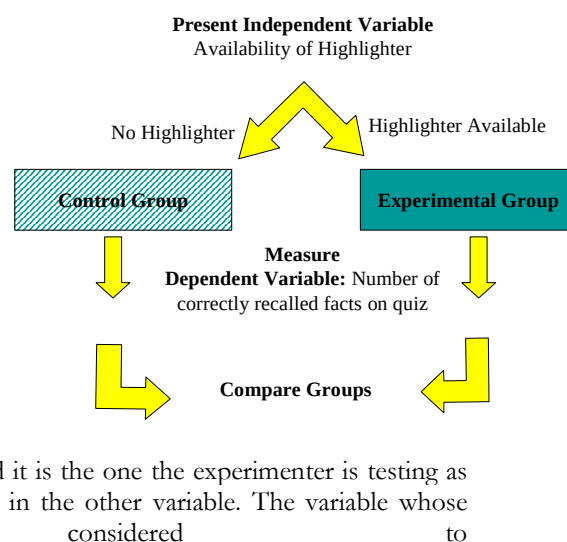
Figure 4 tests the hypothesis that the use of highlighters in text can increase learning. First of all subjects will be given several pages to read. After they have done so, they will be dismissed and asked to return to the experimental lab the next day.

Figure 5: Each subject is given five pages from an Introductory Psychology text and told to read the pages carefully because they will be tested on the material next day. The subjects are dismissed after they finish reading and asked to return the next day. The quiz next day will determine whether availability of highlighters helped greater learning or not. Highlighters will only be available to the experimental group.

Basic Experimental Design



Basic Experimental Design



Experimental Method: Description

Because correlational studies cannot definitively tell us why variables are related to one another, social psychologists use **experimental methods** to examine cause-effect relationships. In an experiment, the scientist manipulates one variable by exposing research participants to it at contrasting levels (for example, high, medium, low, no exposure), and then observes what effect this manipulation has on the other variable that has not been manipulated. The variable that is manipulated is called the **independent variable**, and it is the one the experimenter is testing as the possible cause of any changes that might occur in the other variable. The variable whose changes are considered to

be the effect of the manipulated changes in the independent variable is called the **dependent variable**.

The dependent variable is the response measure of an experiment that is dependent on the participant's response to the experimenter's manipulation of the setting (the independent variable)

A number of experimental studies have explored whether watching violent entertainment programs leads to increased aggressiveness in children. For example, Jacques-Philippe Leyens and his colleagues (1975) conducted an experiment in a Belgian private institution for secondary-school boys. The independent variable in this study was exposure to violent films. In two cottages at the school, boys were shown a violent film every night for one week (for example, *Bonnie and Clyde*, *The Dirty Dozen*). The boys in two other cottages were shown the same number of nonviolent films during the same period of time (for example, *Lily*, *Daddy's Fiancée*). Significant differences were found between the two groups of boys, with the treatment group exhibiting higher levels of aggression both toward other boys and toward inanimate objects. Based on these findings, the social psychologists concluded that exposure to violent films had indeed caused increased aggressiveness.

FIELD EXPERIMENTS

The study just described is a special type of experiment called a *field experiment*, which is similar to the more common *laboratory experiment*, except that it is run in a natural setting, and participants often do not realize they are being studied. This greater realism increases the study's **external validity**, which is the extent to which its findings can be generalized to people beyond those in the study itself.

Unfortunately, one drawback to field experiments is that researchers have less control over what is happening to each participant during the study because they are in a setting where many variables are uncontrollable. These problems of control decrease the study's **internal validity**, which is the extent to which cause-and-effect conclusions can validly be made (Cook & Shadish, 1994).

LABORATORY EXPERIMENTS

By far, most social psychology experiments are conducted in laboratories. As an illustration, consider the following experiment investigating the effects that two independent variables, television violence and anger, have on boys' aggressive behavior. In this study, Donald Hartmann (1969) randomly assigned teenage boys to different levels of the two independent variables. At the beginning of the experiment, the boys' anger was manipulated by either having a **confederate** of the experimenter—who was posing as a fellow participant—insult him or treat him in a neutral fashion. Following the anger manipulation, the boys were assigned to one of three film conditions lasting two minutes. The first minute of each film showed two boys shooting baskets on a basketball court. For the remaining minute, the boys in the control group film merely played basketball, while in the two treatment-group films one of the boys began beating the other following an argument.

After viewing the film, each boy participated in a seemingly unrelated learning study. As the "teacher" in the study, the participant was instructed to administer an electrical shock to a "learner" whenever the learner made a mistake on the learning task. The learner was the confederate who had either insulted the participant or treated him neutrally. The intensity of the shock chosen by the boys was the dependent variable. In reality, no shocks were ever delivered, but the boys were not aware of this until the end of the experiment. As predicted, boys exposed to a violent film and boys previously angered tried to deliver stronger shocks to the learner than did boys in the control conditions. Further, boys who had been both angered and exposed to a violent film chose the strongest shock levels of the six groups of boys. Thus, the combination of being exposed to a violent film while angry caused the greatest amount of aggression.

The experiment of Hartman is an example of complex experiments, which is illustrated in the following complex Lab designs.

Complex Lab designs

Figures 6 and 7 show a complex design with 2 independent variables and 2 experimental and one control group.

Figure 6

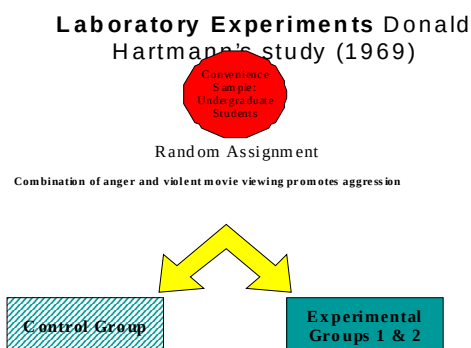
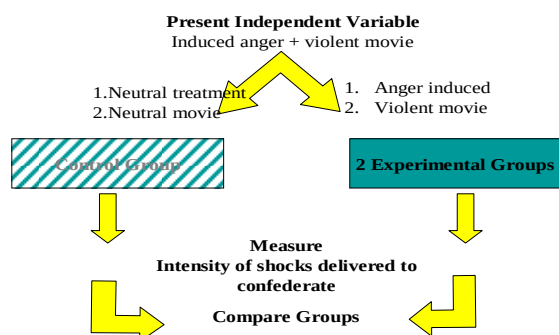


Figure 7 shows the manipulation of independent variables

Complex Experimental Design: Interaction



The main advantage of a lab experiment like Hartmann's is that variables can be well controlled, thus increasing internal validity. An important component of this control is that participants can be randomly assigned to the different levels of the independent variable.

Unfortunately, because of the researcher's desire to control as much of the experimental situation as possible in order to properly assign causality, an air of artificiality may exist in the lab (Gosling, 2004; Rozin, 2001).

Making Experiments Real

Experimenters recognize two types of realism

Experimental realism

Does the experimental situation feel real to the participants in that situation?

Mundane realism

Does the experiment have the look and feel of situations in the outside world?

Table 1 illustrates the relationship between internal and external validity, as well as between both forms of realism.

Experimental Designs

Independent measures designs

Repeated-measures designs

Counterbalancing is applied to reduce order effect of same individuals exposed to 2 or more conditions called ABBA design: Changing the sequence of conditions for the participants; advantages are less subject variability, and more strong conclusions about causality

Matched participants

Conclusion: There is no one best method in all research settings. In each investigation, social psychologists must decide what method provides the best opportunity of meeting the study's goals.

CONCEPT REVIEW		
<i>Internal/External Validity and Experimental/Mundane Realism</i>		
Concept	Description	Features That Enhance It
Internal validity	The extent to which the research yields clear causal information	Experiment (versus correlational research); random assignment; control of extraneous variables
External validity	The extent to which research results can be generalized beyond the current sample, setting, and other characteristics of the study	Realistic setting; diverse sample; replications across different studies
Experimental realism	The extent to which the experimental setting elicits spontaneous, natural behavior	Involving procedure for participants; convincing cover story for participants; perception by participants that the study is addressing an important issue
Mundane realism	The extent to which the experimental setting is similar to nonlaboratory settings	Realistic setting; tasks and behaviors that occur in the real world; field experiment

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Source: Brechler et al. 2006, Social Psychology Alive

LESSON 09**THE SELF****Aims**

Introducing the concept of the self as the subject and object of awareness

Objective 1

Describe other methods of research in social psychology and reviewing part I of Social Psychology syllabus

Main Objectives of this lecture

Discussing the self as both target of attention and active agent
Discuss types of self awareness

Link to previous lecture # 8

The previous 6 lectures focused on conducting social psychology research.. Although all the main topics including primary research methods including observational, correlational, and experimental methods were discussed, a few more research methods relying on emerging technologies will be discussed in the beginning of lecture # 9. The highlights of lecture # 9 are given below followed by some description on other research methods used in social research.

Other Research Methods used in Social Research**Meta Analysis**

The findings from a single study are far less convincing than the findings from a series of related studies. This is why researchers are so interested in replication, which involves repeating a study using different participants in an attempt to duplicate previous findings. To rely on more sophisticated comparison procedures when dealing with contradictory findings-from replication studies, researchers now use techniques called meta-analysis (Hall & Brannick, 2002). *Meta-analysis* is a statistical technique to determine whether specific variables have important effects across many studies. Meta-analysis is the use of statistical techniques to sum up a body of similar studies in order to objectively estimate the reliability and overall size of the effect.

Social Psychologists Are Increasingly Using Emerging Technologies in Their Research

In addition to using more powerful statistical techniques, an increasing number of social psychologists are employing new technologies in their study of social interaction.

1. VIRTUAL ENVIRONMENT TECHNOLOGY

Recently, some social psychologists believe they have found a possible remedy to the dilemma of choosing between greater control and greater realism in experiments (Blascovich, 2003). They recommend using virtual environment technology, in which they create a virtual research environment using a computer. Virtual environment technology creates a virtual research environment using a computer.

2. THE INTERNET

The Internet is a relatively new medium for communication, and many social psychologists are employing it as an avenue to collect data. One of the biggest advantages in using the Internet is that researchers can recruit participants from the entire world and test them remotely (Birnbbaum, 2004). This technology has greatly facilitated the ability of social psychologists to conduct cross-cultural research. For example, in a series of Internet experiments on social exclusion, Kipling Williams and his colleagues (2000) collected data from more than 1,500 participants from over sixty countries. Other advantages of the Internet as a data collection site are that studies can be run without the presence of a researcher, without the need for large laboratories, without expensive equipment (except access to a computer and an Internet connection), and without limitations on the time of day in which the data are collected.

Web-based studies are not without limitations. Obtaining a representative sample is one of the primary concerns with Internet studies. Another limitation of the Internet is that researchers cannot guarantee that someone hasn't sent multiple copies of the same data to them masquerading as different participants.

3. BRAIN-IMAGING TECHNIQUES

In the last decade, new technologies have permitted us to peer deep into the living brain, providing researchers with a unique opportunity to understand how social thinking and behavior are associated with neural activity. Brain-imaging techniques provide researchers with measures of participants' neural activity while they engage in various tasks. The most commonly used brain-imaging techniques are:

- The electroencephalograph (EEG)
- Computerized axial tomography (CAT)
- Magnetic resonance imaging (MRI)
- Positron-emission tomography (PET)
- Functional magnetic resonance imaging (fMRI).

The Self

Introduction

"No topic is more interesting to people than people. For most people, moreover, the most interesting is the self (Baumeister, The self in social Psychology, 1999)

1. In 1999, the word "self" appeared in 9269 book and article summaries in *Psychological Abstracts*.
2. Self concept is person's answer to the question "who I am"
3. Twenty Statement Test (TST) by Kuhn & McPartland (1954) have been used to have an idea about one's self-concept.
4. Self-schemas are beliefs about self that organize and guide the processing of self-relevant information
5. Self-schemas powerfully affect how we process social information

The Self Is a Symbol-Using, Self-Reflective, Social Being

The self is both a simple and a complex concept. It is not a mental construct located inside your head—it is you, a social being with the ability to engage in symbolic communication and self-awareness. The reason the word "social being" is used to define the self is because selves develop in isolation, but only do so within a social context (Baumeister & Twenge, 2003; Hardin, 2004).

Self-awareness and symbol usage—and thus, the self—may have evolved in our ancestors as a means to better deal with an increasingly complex social environment.

What brain area accounts for these remarkable cognitive abilities? Neuroscientists have identified the frontal lobes of the cerebral cortex as the primary source (Heatherton et al., 2004). The **cerebral cortex** is the wrinkled-looking outer layer of brain tissue that coordinates and integrates all other brain areas into a fully functioning unit. This is the brain's "thinking" center, and it is much larger in humans than in other animals.

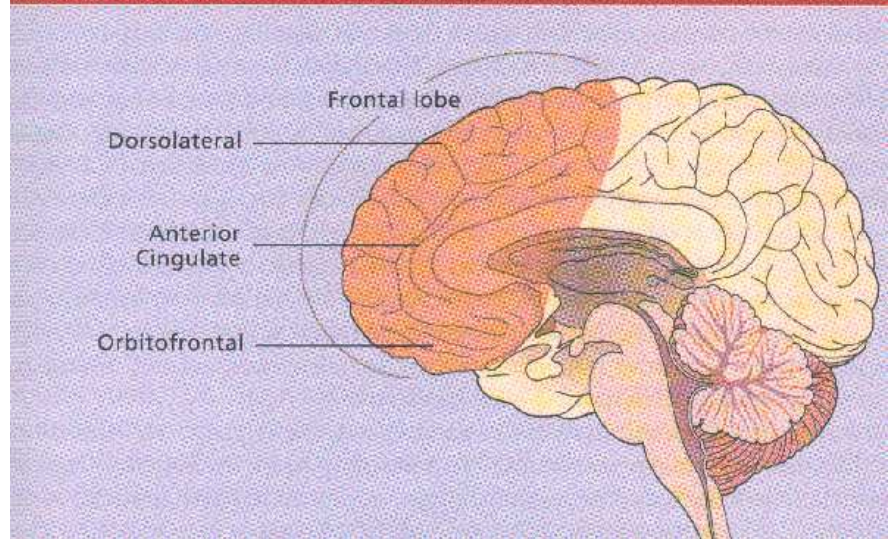
The **frontal lobes** are involved in the coordination of movement and higher mental processes such as planning, social skills, and abstract thinking (Poldrack & Wagne 2004), and anterior cingulate of frontal lobe is involved in self awareness (see below).

Most influential theorists of the concept of self

The most influential contributors to our understanding of the self were two early social theorists, psychologist William James and sociologist George Herbert Mead, and the contemporary self theories are based on the insights of them. In both James's and Mead's theories, the self is described as having two separate aspects, the self as knower (the I) and the self as known (the me).

The "I" is the active perceiver, initiator, and regulator of action; the "me" is the knowledge one has about oneself.

FIGURE 3.1



SEE GEORGE MEAD AND WILLIAM JAMES'S PICTURES BELOW:



GEORGE MEAD



WILLIAM JAMES'

Types of self awareness

Private self awareness: It is temporary state of being aware of private, hidden self-aspects. We are aware of our private self when we looking ourselves in mirror, or become aware of our stomach cramps.

Public awareness: Public is being aware of public-self aspects. We become aware of our public self, when, e.g., we are being watched by others, or our photograph is taken.

Readings

Franzoi, S.L. (2006). *Social Psychology*. New York: McGraw Hill. Chapter 3.

Lord, C.G. (1997). *Social Psychology*. Orlando: Harcourt Brace and Company. Chapter 5.

LESSON 10**THE SELF (Continued)****Aims**

Introducing the concept of the self as the subject and object of awareness

Objectives

- Discuss development of self awareness
- Understanding consequences of self consciousness
- To understand the concept of self through Journal writing
- Understanding self regulation as the activity of “I”, an active agent.
- Describing self schemas
- Understanding the development of gender schemas
- Understanding how Culture shapes the structure of self-concept

Development of Self awareness

- Not inborn
- Infants (9-12 months) take their mirror image as of another child. They must first develop internalized identity to recognize their external mirror image
- **Later stage of infancy:** one recognizes that one is a separate individual around 18 months. Perhaps it develops with the growth of spindle cells of anterior cingulate, which are not present at birth.
- **Childhood:** one labels personal qualities and abilities
- **Adolescence:** the self becomes critically important as a basis for making life decisions
- **Middle & Late Adulthood:** the self continues to change, though generally not as extensively

Effects of Private self awareness

- Intensification of affect: Any negative or positive feelings experienced when privately self aware will be exaggerated. For example person privately self aware can become very happy or unhappy on some event.
- Clarification of knowledge: Private events become more clearer and distinct, thus increasing our ability to report on them
- Greater adherence to personal standards of behaviour: You are more likely to act in line with your personal beliefs than to conform to social pressures

Effects of public awareness

- Evaluation apprehension: You may experience greater apprehension when you realize that you are the object of others' attention. We know through experience that public scrutiny results in either positive or negative outcomes.
- Temporary loss of self-esteem: Temporary loss of self esteem may occur when there is greater discrepancy between ideal and actual public self; that explains why we feel bad after a failed presentation.
- Greater adherence to social standards of behaviour: A heightened sense of conformity is expected from a public self-aware person.
- As far as comparison between personal and public self awareness are concerned, some scientists believe that People are motivated by a desire to meet personal goals, while other believe that we are largely a reflected image of our social group. Both are good in their own limited fashion.

Self-consciousness as a personality trait

Individual differences in self reflection: When we are self aware, the focus is only temporary. But some people spend more time in self reflecting than others. Habitual tendency to engage in self awareness is known as the personality trait of self-consciousness

Private self-consciousness and public self-consciousness: Tendency to be aware of private aspects of self, and tendency to be aware of publicly displayed aspects of self.

Advantages of private self-consciousness

- Self-disclosure improves relationships
- The physical health is less likely to be adversely affected as people notice early signs of illness and thus are more likely to take precautionary measures

Negatives of private self consciousness

Habitual tendency can contribute to depression and neuroticism. Neuroticism is the trait of chronic unhappiness. There is some debate whether private self consciousness can make one a better person. Some people argue that yes it does. However, others warn that one should not analyze one's feelings so much as it can drive one crazy. Studies have suggested reducing self-awareness by engaging in distracting activities (Moskalenko & Heine, 2003). When people's performance fall short of their expectations, the resulting frustration is aggravated by prolonged attention to private self. It intensifies one's emotional reactions.

Studies have suggested reducing self-awareness by engaging in distracting activities (Moskalenko & Heine, 2003). Distracting attention from self can improve well-being, like watching TV, gardening, etc.

Public self-consciousness effects

- More concerned about how others judge us
- More conforming to group norms
- More likely to withdraw from embarrassing situations
- More concerned about our physical appearance

Self regulation

Self regulation is the most important function of self, which is associated with the “I” aspect of self. During the course of our every day life, we perform countless activities in which we don't have to think as they have become habits. But we have to sometime consciously control and exert a lot of cognitive effort in the process. It refers to the way in which people control and direct their actions.

It provides us with the capacity to forgo the immediate gratification of small rewards to later attain larger rewards.

Study of Shoda et al. (1990) showed the survival value of self regulation. They found out that people who learn how to delay gratification in childhood are better adjusted later in life.

Self Control Theory: Test-Operate-Test-Exit: TOTE: We test us against some standard, when we find that we are falling short of some standard, then we operate to change ourselves (study more), in the second phase we test us again, then exit when there is no or less difference between our behaviour and the standard, then we are happy and exit.

Emotional consequences of not meeting the standard

Self-discrepancy is the distance between our self concept and ideal self, or how we believe/others think we should be (ought self);

Discrepancy produces strong emotions (Higgins, 1987):

Dejection-related emotions: Dejection: frustration, depression; with ideal self, e.g., I wish I was more physically attractive

Agitation related emotions are anxiety, guilt which arise as a result of discrepancy with ought self, e.g., I should help my family with more money but I can't

Self-Regulation failure

Negative emotions hinder the type of self-regulation necessary for achieving long-term goals. For

example, you are dieting but when depressed start eating more.

At any given time we have limited energy to self regulate. Each exercise depletes this energy.. So after exercising one activity of self regulation, we find it hard on other unrelated activity. Baumeister et al. (1998) maintained that self-regulating on one task makes it harder to immediately self regulate on unrelated tasks. They concluded that exertion of self control causes a subsequent decline in activity. For example, you did not go to party because of exams, and found it difficult to control anger when your brother was noisy later in the evening. Hence, exertion of self control causes a subsequent decline in activity

Self schemas

- Schemas are ingredients of self-concept. They are how knowledge about us is organized in memory.
- Computer metaphor: the subjective self “I” consists of programs components, and the objective self “me” in other words schemas are the data aspect of the computer.
- A schema is a cognitive structure that represents knowledge about some stimulus. The term schema has been borrowed from cognitive psychology.
- Based on our experience; we can have schemas about things, people, and events.
- We may be self-schematic or a schematic toward some thing. The qualities that are important to us, we are self-schematic about them. In contrast things which are not central to our self-concept we are a schematic for them.

Activity: Your self concept

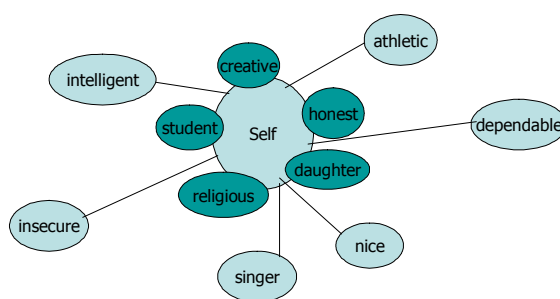
Below are given 14 adjectives, read and encircle whichever apply to you or central to your self concept

- | | |
|--------------|---------------|
| 1. Adaptable | 2. Courageous |
| 3. Romantic | 4. Humorous |
| 5. Bold | 6. Kind |
| 7. Shy | 8. Nervous |
| 9. Organized | 10. Warm |
| 11. Honest | 12. Diplomat |
| 13. Truthful | 14. Artistic |

A simplified representation of self-schemas

Length of lines in this diagram show the importance to the self concept of this female. Highly valued self schemas are embedded into the self. She is highly schematic to being religious, daughter, student, creative and honest.

A simplified representation of self-schemas



GENDER SCHEMA

This self-labeling, known as **gender identity**, is the identification of oneself as a male or a female and the internalization of this fact into one's self-concept. Knowing that “I am a girl” or “I am a boy” is one of the core building blocks in a child's developing self-theory (Bussey & Bandura, 1999).

Once gender identity fully develops – around the age of 6 or 7 – little if anything can change it (Money & Ehrhardt, 1972).

When children develop gender identity they strive to act in ways consistent with this identity. According to Sandra Bem (1981), if a culture emphasizes distinctions between women and men, then children growing up in that culture learn to process information about themselves, other people, and even things and events according to their perceived gender associations. In other words, they develop a **gender schema**, which is a cognitive structure for processing information based on its perceived female or male qualities.

For example, in North American culture, personal characteristics such as physical attractiveness, cooperation and empathy, activities such as skipping rope and cooking, or even animals such as cats and birds come to be perceived as having a female connotation.

The fact that, in most cultures, masculine activities are more highly valued than feminine activities may largely explain why men score slightly higher than women on standard measures of global self-esteem (Kling et al., 1999).

Culture Shapes the Structure of Self-Concept

At the beginning of this chapter I asked you to contemplate who you are by describing yourself twenty times. Sociologists Manford Kuhn and Thomas McPartland devised this Twenty Statements Test (TST) in 1954 to measure self-concept. A common technique used to analyze TST responses (see Hartley, 1970) is to code each response into one of four categories; *physical self-descriptions* identify self in terms of physical qualities that do not imply social interaction ("I am a male"; "I am a brunette"; "I am overweight"); *social self-descriptions* identify self in terms of social roles, institutional memberships, or other socially defined statuses ("I am a student"; "I am a daughter"; "I am a Jew"); *attributive self-descriptions* identify self in terms of psychological or physiological states or traits ("I am intelligent"; "I am assertive"; "I am tired"); *global self-descriptions* identify self so comprehensively or vaguely that it does not distinguish one from any other person ("I am a human being"; "I am alive"; "I am me"). Return to your own TST responses and code each into one of these four categories. Which category occurs most frequently for you?

Readings

- Franzoi, S.L. (2006). *Social Psychology*. New York: McGraw Hill. Chapter 3.
- Lord, C.G. (1997). *Social Psychology*. Orlando: Harcourt Brace and Company. Chapter 5.

LESSON 11**THE SELF (Continued)****Aims**

Introducing the concept of the self as the subject and object of awareness

Objectives

- Understanding self-regulation through the discussion in Applied social psychology lab
- Conducting a Journal Activity to understand the impact of students' culture on different aspects of their self concept.
- Discussing historical factors in the transformation of collectivistic to individualistic culture in the West
- Understanding the self concept of biculturalists
- Evaluating the self – self esteem

Applied Social Psychology Lab: Negatives of private self consciousness

We all indulge in self awareness, but if focus too much after a failure, it can intensify our negative emotions; we may become depressed. Hence outcome of negative self consciousness may be indulgence in self destructive activities.

Examples: Binge eating; substance abuse; two most serious problems of youth today (Wechsler et al., 2000). The purpose is usually to reduce awareness of some distressing events. For example, in binge eating attention is redirected on chewing, tasting and swallowing, temporary relief from depression.

According to Hull et al. (1986) UGs high in self consciousness are more likely to indulge in substance use after academic failures.

Application of self-regulation theory

- Focus your awareness beyond the immediate situation and pay attention to long term goals.
- Pay attention to cues that trigger undesirable behavior, e.g., cues in social environment like arguments with family members
- Recognize when your resolve is weak. As mentioned earlier people have limited amount of energy at any given time to regulate, they should not exert in an unrelated activity
- Establishing an implementation intention are statements to yourself that as soon as a particular situation occurs you will be automatically initiate goal-directed behavior.
- Adaptive self regulation of unattainable goals: Worsch et al.'s study (2003) with parents of cancer children.

Journal Activity

Each of us as individuals has a unique perspective on the world that is in part derived from the groups to which we belong. Our cultural background contributes to how we think, feel, and behave in the social world. Culture here is defined broadly and may include many types of things such as your ethnicity, religion, race, family size, geographical location, generation, and gender orientations. The procedure of this activity is as written below:

“Think about your own cultural background. Describe some ways that it has impacted your view of and behavior in the world. Some examples of influence include (but are certainly not limited to) patterns of family interaction, expectations regarding marriage, music preferences, food preferences, style of dress, values, sense of humor, political affiliation, behavior in public places, propensity toward competitiveness, ambition, gender roles, and conversational style. Also construct your self schema model”

Possible historical effects

Using this classification scheme, Louis Zurcher (1977) found that while American college students in the 1950s and early 1960s tended to describe themselves in terms of social roles, college students in the 1970s identified themselves in terms of psychological attributes. This self-concept trend has continued (Trafimow et al., 1991) and coincides with a rise in individualistic attitudes among Americans (Roberts & Helson, 1997).

Zurcher suggests that these self-concept and attitudinal changes are due to wide-spread cultural changes beginning in the 1950s (Wood & Zurcher, 1988).

In reaction to this dissatisfaction, Zurcher asserted that college students' identification with personal qualities rather than institutional affiliations was an attempt to achieve a greater feeling of personal control over their lives.

Individualist Collectivist comparisons

In general, American, Canadian, and European self-concepts are composed of predominantly attributive self-descriptions, indicating that these individualist cultures foster the development of an **independent self** for their members. In contrast, people from collectivist cultures such as China, Mexico, Japan, India, and Kenya have more social self-descriptions, indicating a fostering of an **interdependent self** (Kanagawa et al., 2001; Ma & Schoeneman, 1997). Within collectivist societies, childrearing practices emphasize conformity, cooperation, dependence, and knowing one's proper place, whereas within more individualist societies, independence, self-reliance, and personal success are stressed. One consequence of these differing views is that in an individualist society, people develop a belief in their own uniqueness and diversity (Miller, 1988). This sense of individuality is nurtured and fostered within the educational system (see table 3.4), and its manifestation is considered a sign of maturity (Pratt, 1991). On the other hand, in a collectivist society, uniqueness and individual differences are often seen as impediments to proper self-growth (Kim & Choi, 1994). Instead, the self becomes most meaningful and complete when it is closely identified with—not independent of—the group (DeVos, 1985).

What about biculturalists?

Although cultures can be characterized as being more oriented toward individualism or collectivism, not everyone living within a particular culture will have the same individualist-collectivist leanings (Ayyash-Abdo, 2001).

Although we tend to cognitively suppress the simultaneous activation of competing social identities (Hugenberg & Bodenhausen, 2004), such suppression is not always successful. When biculturalists' dual views of themselves and their worlds collide, this can lead to internal conflict; as they attempt to reconcile individualist strivings with collectivist yearnings (Sussmaii, 2000).

How is this conflict best resolved? Based on studies of Pueblo, Navajo, Latino, Iranian American, Indian American, and Asia American/Canadian children and adults, neither abandoning one's ancestral collectivist culture nor isolating oneself from the dominant individualist culture is good for mental health (Benet-Martinez & Karakitapoglu-Aygun, 2003; Joe, 1994). Instead, successful biculturalism entails retaining ancestral values and practices while incorporating new values and practices from the dominant culture.

Evaluating the self

It consists of numerous evaluations of self as being good, bad, or mediocre. This evaluative aspect of the "me" is called **self-esteem**.

This difference in evaluating the self has important consequences for people's lives. Individuals with low self-esteem are generally more unhappy and pessimistic (DeNeve & Cooper, 1998; Shepperd et al., 1996), less willing to take risks to benefit themselves (Josephs et al., 1992), more likely to encounter academic and financial problems (Crocker & Luhtanen, 2003), less likely to have successful careers (Judge Bono, 2001), and less likely to be physically healthy (Vingilis et al., 1998) than high self-esteem individuals.

Self-Esteem Development and stability

Feelings of self-worth gradually develop during childhood, with parents playing a critical role in determining its evaluative direction. Although young children do not have a recognizable sense of self-esteem, during middle childhood, their increasing cognitive maturity allows them to integrate others' evaluations of them and their own self-assessments into a global sense of self-esteem.

Research conducted in more than 200 cultures that children with high self-esteem usually have authoritative parents – who exert control not merely by imposing rules and consistently enforcing

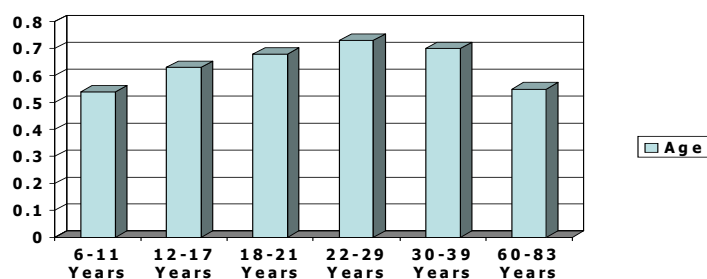
them, but also by allowing their children a fair amount of freedom within the rules and by discussing the rationale behind their decision (Querido et al., 2002).

In contrast, parents who impose many rules and expect strict obedience (*authoritarian parents*) and those who make few demands and submit to their children's desires (*permissive parents*) tend to raise children who are less confident in their abilities and have lower self-esteem (Baumrind, 1996).

How stable is self-esteem across the life span? To answer this question, Kali Trzesniewski and her colleagues (2003) conducted a meta-analysis of fifty self-esteem studies involving almost 30,000 participants in the United States countries.

Test-retest correlations of self-esteem measures across at least a one-year interval were obtained from sample involving people from age 6 to age 83. The researchers found that self-esteem stability is relatively low during childhood, increases throughout adolescence and young adulthood, and declines during midlife and old age.

Stability of self-esteem across life span



Dark side to high self-esteem

- Cultural differences in considering high self-esteem essential for well-being
- Hidden cost to trying to achieve or maintain high self-esteem (Blaine & Crocker, 1993).
- People with unstable self-esteem become angry when challenged (Bushman & Baumeister, 1998): Defense to avoid downward revision (Tangney et al., 1992)
- Stable not fed by a narcissistic defensiveness (Taylor et al., 2003)

Unstable self-esteem

1. Characteristics of Unstable self-esteem:
2. Consciously positive
3. Unconsciously negative

Readings

- Franzoi, S.L. (2006). *Social Psychology*. New York: McGraw Hill. Chapter 3.
- Lord, C.G. (1997). *Social Psychology*. Orlando: Harcourt Brace and Company. Chapter 5.

LESSON 12**THE SELF (CONTINUED)****Aims**

Introducing to students that how people know the self.

Objectives

1. Describing how individuals reflect on individual characteristics
 - Self schemas
 - Complexity of selves
 - Possible selves
 - Self discrepancies
2. Understanding the social context in the understanding of self
 - Social comparisons
 - Self distinctiveness

Introduction

People in western culture may have greater difficulty in knowing who they are today than they did in the past.

That knowing the self has become progressively more difficult. In earlier times, identity was fixed at birth by the family's recognized place in society. Today, people in many western cultures have so much freedom and mobility that they have to "discover" who they are. People may no longer know which of many possible selves is "the real me".

Ways of achieving self-fulfillment have changed along with ways of defining the self. In the Late Medieval period, for instance, Christians who observed the church's strictures were guaranteed fulfillment in heaven. Some psychologists believe that people in the modern era, in contrast, lead empty lives that they try to fill with meaningless consumption of material goods.

Modern people have a vague idea that they would like to achieve a goal called "**self-actualization**," but they are not certain what self-actualization is (Baumeister, 1987). In the "self and society" column, we see that the relationship between self and society has become progressively worse. People in the late medieval era derived both their identity and their fulfillment from their recognized place in what they regarded as a "great chain of being" in which all God's creatures had assigned places. By the early twentieth century, however, people came to believe that society was standing in the way of their personal fulfillment, so they became hostile and critical. In the late twentieth century, people know that society does little to help them in their voyage of self-discovery. People have both a personal identity and a "collective" or social identity. Personal identity is independent of other people; social identity consists of being identified with groups or categories. A social identity is more than just a cognitive category. It is also a network of social relationships (Abrams, 1992; Ethier & Deaux, 1994). People in modern Western cultures may emphasize the personal identity over the social identity.

However, in traditional cultures generally social identity is emphasized over personal identity. Two frequently used methods for arriving at a personal identity are: reflecting on individual characteristics and using the social context.

Reflecting on individual characteristics

The first four processes involve primarily private knowledge. They are ways of thinking about a personal identity that can occur without reference to other people.

Even a hermit who has lived alone in the woods for many years could sit beneath a tree in solitude and reflect on his or her self-schemas, self-complexity, possible selves, and self-discrepancies.

Self-schemas

A schema is a set of beliefs that provides an organizing framework for understanding a topic, an event, or a person. A schema for physiques, for example, might help us to tell the difference between being "fat" and being muscular.

Self-schemas, then, are beliefs that provide an organizing framework to help us understand ourselves. Self-schemas summarize the personality traits, attitudes, values, interests, and other characteristics that we attribute to our-"selves. They also include actions and interpersonal relationships.

In one study of self-schemas, the investigator asked college students how independent they were and whether being independent was important to them— in other words, whether they had a schema for being independent (Markus, 1977). Some students, "schematics," claimed that they were fiercely and consistently independent. Other students, "aschematics," claimed to be independent only part of the time and said that the trait did not matter to them. The aschematics had self-schemas for other characteristics, but not for being independent.

Other studies have shown that similar results apply to people who use self-schemas about being introverted versus outgoing, being masculine versus feminine, or being fat versus thin (Catrambone & Markus, 1987; Crane & Markus, 1982; Fong & Markus, 1982; Markus, Hamill, & Sells, 1987).

Self-complexity

Some people think of themselves along only one or two dimensions. Children may react extremely to failure because they have relatively simple self-schemas that include only a "good me" and a "bad me".

Anorexics may become so preoccupied with weighing themselves, examining their bodies in the mirror, and watching what they eat, that they think of themselves along only the one dimension of being fat versus thin.

It may be dangerous to have too simple a self-schema. A college woman whose self-schema includes the traits necessary for success in athletics, courses, making female friends, and maintaining a satisfactory relationship with a man, for instance, may have a healthier self-schema than another woman whose self-schema centers on only body weight and grades.

Students who had simple self-schemas had less positive moods after they learned that they failed than after they learned that they had succeeded. Students who had complex self-schemas were less influenced by whether they succeeded or failed. Self-schema complexity (having more than one dimension to the self-schema) is an effective buffer against stress-related illness and depression (Linville, 1987). The graph given below describes the research more clearly:

Possible selves

Possible selves are projections of future possibilities for the expected, desired; and feared future self. Students may have a "graduate" possible self. Anorexics may have a "thin" possible self. Visitors to a doctor's office may have a "seriously ill" possible self. Possible selves are "the selves we could become, and the selves we are afraid of becoming" (Markus & Nurius, 1986, p. 954). The present or "now" self overlaps with but is not the same as the many possible future selves.

Possible selves can also affect the way people behave. People who desire a good possible self and fear a bad possible self, for instance, may be more motivated to take constructive actions than are people who fear a bad possible self but cannot imagine a good alternative.

In one study of how to change possible selves, the researchers instilled successful and unsuccessful possible selves in college students (Ruvolo & Markus, 1992). After they imagined successful or unsuccessful future selves, all students participated in two tasks. One task required much persistence. The other required intense concentration. Students who imagined themselves succeeding persisted longer at the task that required sheer persistence and worked more accurately at the task that required concentration than did students who imagined themselves failing. The researchers concluded that our possible future selves are at least as important as are our present self-schemas, because they can motivate and guide us to success.

Present self-schemas differ in complexity. So do future possible selves. The two "tenses" of the self, however, are not always identical, nor are their Consequences. A person soon to enter prison might have many present selves and few future selves. A soon-to-be-divorced person might have just the opposite.

Self-discrepancies

Even within present selves, however, people can reflect on their individual characteristics from different perspectives. The self might be different when seen from different ones of these perspectives (Higgins, 1987). Present selves can be divided into three types: the actual self, the ideal self, and the ought self.

You can view each of these three types of self from two perspectives: the self as seen by the individual and as seen by important other people like a parent, a best friend, or a spouse.

The ideal and ought selves to derive from early interaction between the child and his or her caretaker (Higgins, 1989). By giving or withholding their affection, the parents convey the message "this is the type of person we wish you were," from which the children internalize an ideal self. When children actively violate norms of acceptable behavior, parents react with criticism or physical punishment. Punishment conveys the message "this is the way you ought to behave if you knew right from wrong," from which the children internalize an ought self.

Problems arise when the individual perceives self-discrepancies, which are discrepancies between the actual self and either the ideal self or the ought self, whether from the individual's perspective or from other people's perspective. Both children and adults become depressed when other people withhold positive regard or when they are disappointed in themselves.

When their actual self is discrepant from or fails to live up to their own ideal self they feel dejected. When their actual self is discrepant from an important other person's ideal for them they feel ashamed.

The two major types of self-discrepancy thus elicit different types of emotional reaction. Discrepancies between the actual self and the ideal self make people feel sad; discrepancies between the actual self and the ought self make people feel anxious and agitated (Higgins, 1989).

USING THE SOCIAL CONTEXT

To arrive at a personal identity, then, people usually find it necessary to use the social context. Two processes (social comparison and self-distinctiveness) that use other people in the social context to decide "Who am I?"

SOCIAL COMPARISON

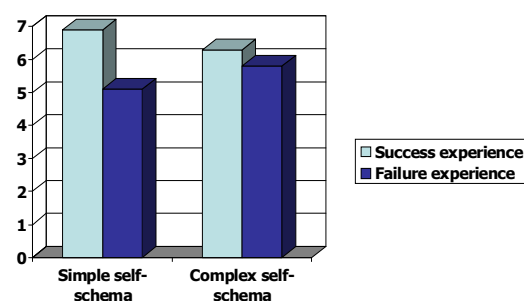
The self concept depends importantly on the attributes of others who are either selected or available for comparison (Pelham, 1991; Rosenberg, 1993).

Social comparison occurs when people use others as standards of comparison against which to evaluate their own opinions, attributes, and abilities (Festinger, 1954). For some characteristics, no objective standard exists (Kruglanski & Mayseless, 1990). Am I thin enough to be attractive and successful? Do I have many friends? Such questions are difficult to People arrive at a personal identity by using the social context. They would not know how they compared to other people. answer in absolute terms.

Lacking objective standards, people draw inferences by comparing themselves, to others. But which others? Sometimes we get to choose from many possible others the specific people with whom we want to compare ourselves. At other times, we have no choice (Wood, 1989). Sometimes we assume our personal identity and compare the self with other individuals. At other times we assume our social identity and compare ourselves with members of our own or rival groups (Brewer & Weber, 1994). In either case, the result of social comparison has an important influence on who we think we are.

People sometimes prefer to learn about people who are similar to them. At other times, they prefer to learn about people who are a little better or a little worse. Comparing yourself with someone who is a little better is called *upward comparison*. Comparing yourself with someone who is a little worse is called *downward comparison*. Which makes people feel better about them? It depends. Upward comparison can lower people's self-esteem by suggesting that they are not performing as well as they might. It can also raise self-esteem by suggesting that improvement is

Linville's study (1987)



possible (Testa & Major, 1990). Conversely, downward comparison can raise people's self-esteem by suggesting that they are doing very well.

The impact of either upward or downward social comparison on a person's self-concept depends on the reason for making the comparison (Kruglanski & Mayseless, 1987, 1988). If the goal is to derive inspiration that "I can improve," then upward comparison has a positive impact on the self. If people want reassurance that "things could be worse," then downward comparison is a better strategy for retaining a positive self-image. People tend to prefer whichever type of comparison protects their self-esteem and gives them hope for the future.

People do not always have a choice, however, about the others who are available for social comparison.

The goal of social comparison and self-reflection, then, is not so much to attain self-knowledge as to make people feel better about themselves. They are happier when they can selectively remember more positive than negative life events. If tragedy "makes sense," emotions and stress-related health problems may be moderated. The ultimate threat to self is death. To avoid debilitating anxiety over their own eventual demise, people rely on reassuring "cultural worldviews" such as patriotism or religion.

Self distinctiveness

Logically, people can only be aware of their own attributes by contrast with other people. Adults would not think of themselves as adult if people were born mature and were never children. Men would not find it important to identify themselves as men if there were no women. To a large degree, then, the self-concept consists of ways in which we are distinctive or different from other people (Johnson & Boyd, 1995).

People of all ages are more likely to include a characteristic as part of their self-schema if they are surrounded by other people who do not share the characteristic (McGuire & McGuire, 1988). College students of nontraditional age, for instance, are more likely than traditional age students to mention their age when they describe themselves (Kite, 1992). The spontaneous self-concept, then, depends importantly on ways in which we are different from the particular set of other people with whom we happen to have contact.

Readings

- Franzoi, S.L. (2006). *Social Psychology*. New York: McGraw Hill. Chapter 3.
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LESSON 13**PERSON PERCEPTION****Aims**

Introducing to students that how people perceive others.

Objectives

- Understanding what is person perception and impression formation.
- Discussing how our impressions of others are formed by nonverbal cues.

Practical implications of previous four lectures: The Self

The following practical implications were discussed pertaining to one's knowledge and understanding of oneself.

- Negatives of self consciousness as a trait: self destructive activities
- Implementation of self regulation: cues, depletion of energy, affirmations
- High esteem as a positive trait, but be aware of dark side
- Importance of downward and upward comparisons
- Reduce discrepancies between actual and ideal and ought selves

Applied Social Psychology Lab: A case Example

This lecture was started with a case example of a USA Reporter Stephen Glass, who was an ambitious young man. He was known for integrity, intelligence, and supreme confidence. In the mid-1990s, while serving as executive editor for the University of Pennsylvania's student-run newspaper, Glass wrote, "The role of The Daily Pennsylvanian is not to make allies and not to make enemies—it is to report the truth." As leader of the school's paper, Stephen was both charming and demanding. He wrote vivid stories of his journalistic adventures, while simultaneously admonishing these budding journalists to check their facts before filing a story. One of those reporters recalled, "While fact-checking my writing, he once admonished me for inverting a quotation I had taken from a politician's speech. I had not changed the meaning of the speaker's words, but Steve insisted I quote the words in the order in which the speaker actually spoke them. At the time, I was impressed that Steve could be creative and also hold himself to such strict ethical standards" (Brus, 1998).

Following graduation, this likable, talented, and high-minded reporter soon became associate editor of The New Republic, and, at the age of 25, was a rising star in the world of journalism with his freelance reporting for such high-profile magazines as George, Rolling Stone, and Harper's Magazine.

Then something happened. In May 1998, Glass wrote a story for The New Republic about a 15-year-old computer hacker who broke into the database of a software company and posted the salaries of its executives on its web site. Instead of prosecuting this wayward computer whiz, the executives wanted to hire him. This story was different from Stephen's previous stories as this time he also published Website of Software Company and the name of hacker. However, when another journalist tried to locate that hacker, he did not find any trace of him. Further investigation showed his news stories were all fabrications, and his particular performance as a principled reporter abruptly ended. However, this case is an example how as self-presenters, we often consistently try to shape others' impressions. Another thing which this case example shows that how peoples' impressions of other person's are formed.

What is person perception?

The process by which we come to know about others' temporary states such as their emotions, intentions, and desires and enduring dispositions such as their beliefs, traits, and abilities is known as person perception. This type of perception is often not a single, instantaneous event, but rather comprises a number of ongoing processes, which can be roughly classified into two general areas: impression formation and attribution.

Impression Formation

Impression formation is often based on rapid assessments of salient and observable qualities and behaviors in others. These judgments are obtained by attending to nonverbal cues, such as facial expressions and body posture, as well as incorporating more detailed and descriptive characteristics, such as traits, into an overall impression. If you talk to anyone who was there at the same time as him, I don't think you'll find anyone at the paper who questioned his ethics at all. Impression formation is usually just the first step of person perception. Often, we also want to understand what causes people to act in a particular manner. This attribution process goes beyond discerning people's current moods and feelings and attempts instead to use their past actions to predict future behavior

Impression formation is the process by which observers integrate various sources of information about others' self-presentations into a unified and consistent judgment (Hamilton & Sherman, 1996; Ickes, 2003). The process of forming impressions is viewed by social psychologists as a dynamic one, with judgments being continually updated in response to new information. It is analogous to building a "working model" of a person and then using this as a guideline in our actions toward him or her

Our Impressions of Others Are Shaped by Their Nonverbal Behavior

First impressions are often based on nonverbal communication, which is the sending and Receiving of information using gestures, expressions, vocal cues, and body movements rather than words. Two of the more important nonverbal channels of communication are facial expressions AND body movements. However, all nonverbal cues including paralinguistic and unconscious mimicry are vas under:

1. Facial Expressions

More than two thousand years ago, the Roman orator Marcus Cicero wrote that the "face is the image of the soul." Centuries later, Charles Darwin (1872) proposed that facial expressions not only play an important role in communication, but that certain emotional expressions are inborn and thus are understood throughout the world. Studies conducted during the past thirty years provide support for Darwin's assertions: there is substantial cross-cultural agreement in both the experience and expression of emotions; although certain emotions are easier to distinguish than others most researchers have concluded that certain emotions are more basic, or primary, than others. Most classification lists include the following seven primary emotions: anger, disgust, fear, happiness, surprise, contempt, and sadness other emotions that are considered basic by some theorists are shame and guilt. He believed that this ability to recognize emotion from the observation of facial expressions was genetically programmed into our species and had survival value for us.

Research supports the survival value hypothesis. For instance, a number of studies have shown people pictures of crowds of faces to determine what facial expressions were most recognizable in such a clustered setting. As Darwin would have predicted, people spotted threatening faces (anger first, fear second) faster and more accurately than nonthreatening faces, even when the nonthreatening faces depicted negative emotions such as sadness (Hansen & Hansen, 1988; Lanzetta & Orr, 1986; Ohman et al., 2001).

2. Body Movements

Besides facial cues, the body as a whole can convey a wealth of information. William Chaplin and his coworkers (2000) have found evidence that in North American culture people with firm handshakes tend to be more extraverted, adventurous, and less neurotic and shy than those with weak handshakes. Recognizing the importance of this nonverbal behavior in forming favorable first impressions, many professional training seminars now teach attendees how to properly shake hands.

There are different forms of physical touches, like mother's touch to a child is very comforting (Maurer & Maurer, 1988). Similarly several forms of therapies, physical as well as psychological, use physician's touch in the process of healing (Borelli & Heidt, 1988. Studies

have also reported comparatively less tension in those who touch and get touched (Anderson et al., 1987), which shows the power and importance of touch.

A series of studies by Joel Aronoff and his colleagues (1992) also suggest that people often infer underlying emotional states by reading the geometric patterns of bodies during social interaction; For example, in a creative analysis of dance characters in classical ballet, the researchers' found that the body and arm displays of the threatening characters were more diagonal or angular, while those of the warm characters were more rounded. These findings suggest that people analyze the shape of large-scale body movements to better determine another person's behavioral intentions. Yet although there are commonly shared meanings of many physical gestures, it is also true that people from different cultures often assign different meanings to the same physical movements

3. Nonconscious Mimicry

Beyond interpreting the meaning of specific nonverbal gestures, our impressions of others are also shaped by nonconscious mimicry, which is the tendency to adopt the behaviors, postures, or mannerisms of interaction partners without conscious awareness or intention. Mimicking others' facial expressions appears to be so inborn that 1 -month-old infants have been shown to smile, stick out their tongues, and open their mouths when they see someone else doing the same (Metzlaff & Moore, 1989). Evidence that mimicry is often nonconscious and unintentional comes from number of studies.

Insight into the biological basis for nonconscious mimicry comes from PET scans and EEG recordings of people's brains while they observe another person performing an action. These studies found that similar neural circuits are firing in the observers' brains as are firing in the brains of those who are carrying out the action. These specialized neural circuits located in the premotor cortex are called mirror neurons

How does mimicking affect impression formation? In a follow-up experiment to their face-rubbing/foot-shaking study, Chartrand and Bargh (1999) found evidence that mimicry increases liking for the imitator. The researchers instructed confederates to subtly imitate the mannerisms of people they were interacting with in a "get acquainted" session (for example, rubbing their face or tapping their foot when their partner did so). Their findings indicated that people whose gestures had been mimicked liked the confederates more than those who had not been mimicked. Prosocial behavior these studies suggest that mimicry triggers – positive reactions in people that lead to benefits to those who are present.

Nonverbal Channels

All nonverbal cues can be divided into visible and invisible channels. The examples are given below:

Visible and No visible channels

■Visible

■Facial expressions, gestures, posture, appearance, Eye Contact [not made in some cultures] Indicates interest (friendship or threat)

■Paralinguistic: These are not related with variation in the content of speech but in the variation of tone and quality of speech. For example, Pitch, amplitude, rate, voice quality of speech

■Studies have indicated that:

■An attractive voice is resonant, articulate, and has a range; not shrill, high-pitched or monotonous (Zuckerman & Miyake, 1993)

■Attractive voiced are perceived as more strong and interpersonally warm (Berry, 1992)

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- Franzoi, S.L. (2006). *Social Psychology*. New York: McGraw Hill. Chapter 4.
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LESSON 14**PERSON PERCEPTION (CONTINUED)****Aims**

Introducing to students that how people perceive others.

Objectives

- Describing the process of gender socialization and how impressions of both genders are formed.
- Understanding the impact of culture on the process of person perception.
- Describing gender and cultural differences in nonverbal cues
- Understanding the role of personality traits in person perception
- Describing how overall impression is formed and integrated

Gender socialization

A social **role** is a cluster of socially defined expectations that individuals in a given situation are expected to fulfill. Social roles are (1) defined by society, (2) applied to all individuals in a particular social category, and (3) consist of well-learned responses by individuals. According to Alice Eagly's (1987, 1996) **social role theory**, the different social roles occupied by women and men lead to differences in the perception of women and men and in their behavior, Stephanie Shields (2002) describes two contrasting emotional styles that are linked to gender socialization. Both are required of women and men, but each is expected more of one sex than the other.

Extravagant expressiveness is an open style of experiencing and communicating emotion that is associated with femininity.

The second emotional style telegraphs intense emotion under control, which Shields labels manly emotion because of its connection to a particular version of heterosexual masculinity.

These two emotional styles associated with female and male social roles convey different messages to people witnessing their expression. The strongly felt—yet controlled—manly emotion conveys the message that the person is independent: "I can control my emotion (and thereby, my self), and I can harness it to control the situation." The underlying message of extravagant expressiveness involves nurturance: "My emotion (and thereby, my self) is at your service." Shields contend that in North American culture /manly emotion is ultimately considered more important than extravagant emotion because it is believed to express rational behavior. In contrast, although the feminine emotional standards underlying emotional expressiveness foster many socially desirable behaviors (such as tenderness and selflessness), they are culturally tainted because of their association with emotion out of control. Research indicates that boys are encouraged to express emotions—such as anger, contempt, and pride—that reflect a sense of entitlement to power in society and are discouraged from displaying vulnerable emotions. In contrast, this same research suggests that girls are encouraged to express emotions associated with satisfaction, powerlessness, and service to others, such as happiness, fear, and empathy. Because of possessing these qualities, studies have revealed gender differences in general understanding of nonverbal cues. For example, Meta analysis of 75 studies showed that women are more adept to decode nonverbal communication (Judith Hall, 1978). Women have also been reported to possess greater tendency to detect different kinds of nonverbal cues. One study showed the greatest ability of women for decoding facial expressions followed by body cues and smallest for voice tone (Hall, 1984).

Research indicates that boys are encouraged to express emotions—such as anger, contempt, and pride—that reflect a sense of entitlement to power in society and are discouraged from displaying vulnerable emotions. In contrast, this same research suggests that girls are encouraged to express emotions associated with satisfaction, powerlessness, and service to others, such as happiness, fear, and empathy (Saarni, 1999). Women are also reported to be better at communicating happiness, while men have been shown to be more proficient at communicating anger.

Cultural differences in certain nonverbal cues

Nonverbal behavior plays in impression formation and often consciously employs nonverbal cues in their self-presentation strategies.

Individualism and Collectivism

It makes abundant sense that cultures would develop social rules for when and how different emotions are expressed. Collectivists are much more likely than individualists to monitor their behavior so that it does not disrupt the smooth functioning of the group. Regarding emotions, research suggests that although people from collectivist and individualist cultures do not differ in publicly displaying positive emotions, collectivists are much more uncomfortable about publicly expressing negative emotions. Culture differences are also manifested in many forms of nonverbal cues. Some examples are given below:

- **Shaking hands:** In North American culture people with firm handshakes tend to be more extraverted, adventurous, and less neurotic and shy than those with weak handshakes (William Chaplin et al., 2000). Firm grip in America shows confidence and warmth, while Asians and Middle Easterns prefer a gentle grip and a firm grip shows aggressiveness. On the other hand, Japanese greet by bowing.
- **Touching:** It has been often reported that Americans and Asians are not touch oriented as compared to other cultures.
- **Space relationships:** North Americans are reported to prefer a distance of about 30 inches; Asians like it farther apart; Middle Easterns stand nearer, and moving away may be considered as a sign of unfriendliness.
- **Eye contact:** In North America direct eye contact is considered a sign of confidence, while in Korea and some parts of Pakistan direct eye contact is considered very intimidating, and may sometime be an indicator of sexual interest. Usually in traditional cultures, females are taught to avert eye gaze.

Influence of Culture and Personality

Collectivists are much more likely than individualists to monitor their behavior so that it does not disrupt the smooth functioning of the group. Collectivists are much more uncomfortable about publicly expressing negative emotions.

Impression formation with traits: Central traits

Personality traits are commonly used in forming impressions. In person perception, Asch hypothesized that our overall impression of others is not simply determined by adding up all their personality traits. Instead, certain traits exert a disproportionate influence on people's overall impressions, literally changing the meaning of other traits. He called the dominant traits central traits.

Intelligent, skillful, industrious, warm, determined, practical, and cautious. These less important traits Asch called peripheral traits.

Based on these results, Asch concluded that warm and cold are central traits that significantly influence overall impression formation.

Since Asch's (1946) groundbreaking study, additional research found that as we become acquainted with others, we tend to form an overall impression by averaging all their traits together, but we give more weight to those we believe are most important.

Further, the importance of specific traits may vary depending on the social context in which we make evaluations (Singh & Teoh, 2000). For example, the traits intelligent and humorous may have equal scale values, but intelligent would carry more weight for a psychology department's graduate school admissions committee when evaluating applicants.

Implicit Personality Theory:

When Stephen Glass was accused of fabricating his news stories, almost everybody who knew him or knew of him was shocked. Glass was the epitome of the young, hardworking, ambitious journalist. He just didn't seem like the kind of person who would do such a thing. As suggested by research on central traits, our knowledge about people is structured by: our prior set of beliefs about which traits go together, and the resulting personality judgments we make often defy the rules of cold logic.

These assumptions or naive belief systems that we have about the associations among traits and behaviors are called an implicit personality theory.

In an implicit personality theory, as in impression formation generally, there appears to be operating a principle of evaluative consistency—a tendency to view others in a way that is internally consistent. Even when contradictory information is made available, we still generally persist in viewing people as either consistently good or bad. In this effort toward consistency, we will often distort or explain away contradictory information.

Integrating Impressions

We infer what others are like from what emotions they express. Then we move quickly from observations of appearance and behavior to inferences about personality. In integrating impressions of others, several factors are important, some of them are mentioned below:

Positivity and Negativity Bias

Overall we tend to evaluate others positively. It is known as the positivity bias, which is the tendency for people to evaluate individual human beings more positively than groups or impersonal objects. It may seem contradictory, but because people are biased toward perceiving others in a positive light, when they learn that someone has negative traits they place more weight on these unfavorable attributes in forming an impression of the person. This negativity effect is the tendency of people to give more weight to negative traits than positive traits in impression formation.

In essence, what the positivity bias and negativity effect tell us about person perception is that we are motivated to view people favorably, but favorable impressions are more vulnerable to change than unfavorable impressions.

The common explanation for the negativity effect is that negative traits are more unusual and therefore more distinctive. People pay more attention to those negative qualities and give them more weight. This tendency to direct attention to negatively evaluated stimuli, like the tendency to notice fearful and angry faces in a crowd, is believed to have survival value for human beings.

Primacy and Recency Effects

One other simple and basic factor influences impression formation, and it is related to the order in which we learn bits of information about someone (Van Overwalle & Labiouse, 2004). Known as the primacy effect, it is the tendency for the first information received and to carry more weight in one's overall impression than later information. Why does early information figure more prominently than later information in our impression of others? One possible explanation is that the early bits of information we learn about another provide a cognitive schema or mental outline, which we then use to process later information. If the later information contradicts this schema, we are likely to ignore it.

Although the primacy effect regularly occurs in person perception, it can sometimes be reversed if people are warned against making hasty judgments or told that they will be asked to justify their impressions of a target person (Tetlock & Kim, 1987). In such circumstances, the last bits of information learned may be given greater weight than earlier information. This is known as the recency effect.

The Averaging Principle

Averaging is used to combine separate pieces of information about people, some of which are positive and others of which are negative. A weighted averaging model, in which traits are weighted by importance, provides the best predictions.

Halo Effect

A liked person is assumed to have many other good qualities. People tend to form evaluatively consistent impressions of others.

Readings

- Franzoi, S.L. (2006). Social Psychology. New York: McGraw Hill. Chapter 4.
- Lord, C.G. (1997). Social Psychology. Orlando: Harcourt Brace and Company. Chapter 3.

LESSON 15**PERSON PERCEPTION: WHEN PERSON PERCEPTION IS MOST CHALLENGING****Aims:**

- Evaluating when person perception can be most challenging

Objectives:

- Discussing how perception of baby or mature faces affects people's perceptions.
- Describing how to detect lies.

Link to previous two lectures on person perception

When we perceive other people, we start with salient categories such as sex, race, or age. We use the category to make initial assumptions about the person. If we are willing and able to do so, we also gather additional verbal or nonverbal information. We often interpret the new information as consistent with our first impression. If the new information seems inconsistent enough, we sometimes re-categorize the person or come to regard the person as an individual. Person perception, however, is slanted toward perceiving people as merely instances of a category rather than as individuals. Additional verbal information can sometimes undo category-based assumptions, but only when the perceiver is highly motivated to form an individual impression. Some types of verbal information, such as knowing how the individual behaves, are as likely as physically salient categories to generate spontaneous trait inferences. Nonverbal information also offers many cues to forming an impression. We draw different inferences about people depending on how dominant and attractive their face appears, how high-pitched their voices seem, how youthfully they walk, and how often and youthfully they walk, and how often and intimately they touch each other.

"Accuracy" in person perception can be defined as agreement between the perceiver and the target of perception, agreement between two or more perceivers, or whether the perceiver's impression predicts the target person's future behavior. By any measure, perceivers are more likely to be accurate about evolutionarily significant traits than about other traits. Contrary to popular belief, accuracy does not improve with length of acquaintance.

Person perception from verbal information is subject to several biases. When perceivers learn about a target person's traits in a specific order, for example, the initial traits affect the final impression more than do subsequent traits. Initial traits also change the meaning of subsequent traits, because perceivers use several effective strategies to interpret seemingly inconsistent information in a way that "fits" the initial impression. Perceivers are also biased by implicit personality theories. They believe that knowing one fact about a person, especially the person's standing on a "central trait," allows confident inferences about many other facets of the person's character.

Perceiving people's emotions from nonverbal information is also difficult. Despite some universals in how people display their emotions, different cultures have different "display rules." Knowledge of local display rules is necessary for successful "decoding" of a target person's emotions. Also, people are good at faking facial expressions and other nonverbal cues when they want to mislead perceivers. Women are better than men at "reading" the valid cues to emotion.

When is person perception most challenging?

Person Perception is the foundation of all social interactions: work, politics, patient-doctor relationship, romantic attachments, legal decisions, and international diplomacy. Usually it works well, but sometimes person perception gets very tricky and challenging. Although there could be several instances where person perception can be demanding, there are particularly two instances where it could be very challenging:

1. **Perceiving baby faces**
2. **Detecting lies**

Perceiving baby faces

It becomes very difficult to be objective in case of very attractive characteristics of people with whom we interact. Similarly for certain people, we feel more sympathetic for example we feel

sympathy toward handicapped. The perception of baby faced people is most tricky. We tend to treat baby faced as babies, which are considered dependent and fragile. Young of many species can look after themselves after weeks of their birth, but a human child is dependent for years. Human beings are prepared by their Evolutionary history to treat baby-faced in the same way as they do with children. Baby faced are unanimously explained as having large eyes, a small chin, thin eyebrows, and a small nose.

Stability of facial features

Zebrowitz and Montepare (1992) found that the adult's perceivers agreed almost perfectly on which were the baby-faced persons and which were the more mature-faced persons when they saw photographs of 6 age groups: infants, preschoolers, fifth graders, eighth graders, young adults, and older adults.

People who have baby faces also tend to keep their immature facial features as they move from one age group to the next. Zebrowitz et al. (1993) showed that the perception about someone having a baby or mature face was stable over the years. However, women were less likely to retain their baby faces from high school to their thirties. For both sexes, having a bay face at age 30 did not predict having a baby face at age 50 though.

Baby faced people may also come to believe they have the traits others assume they have (self-fulfilling prophecy). Consistent with this, in one study the researchers Berry & Brownlow's (1989) found that baby-faced women perceived themselves as less likely to carry tasks requiring strength. Baby faced are also perceived as having some positive traits, e.g., warmth, trustworthy, etc., and this perception is remarkably stable across cultures. One study showed that baby faced were perceived as weak, naïve, but interpersonally warm, honest, & dependent by Americans (white, black) and Korean students (Zebrowitz et al., 1993)

Positive and negative consequences

There are many positive and negative consequences of perceiving baby faced people as this perception will affect every field of life: media, work, legal system, and interpersonal attractions.

Interpersonal interactions:

It has been found that people behave and speak to baby-faced differently. As people think that children at younger ages require different treatment because of their cognitive immaturity, they may deal baby-faced in the same way, like speaking slowly and clearly. In one study, student's teachers taught two complicated tasks to a preschooler. Some students were shown pictures of baby-faced preschoolers while others saw those of more mature faces. The telephonic conversation was recorded so that the experimenter could determine to what extent the student teachers clarified, simplified, tried to get and hold attention, and spoke slowly. The results showed that the adult teachers were more apt to use baby talk when talking to the baby faced. (Zebrowitz et al., 1992)

Perception about traits:

Adults may assume that baby-faced are more honest but less intellectually competent. In one study (Brownlow & Zebrowitz, 1990), videotapes of 150 TV commercials were taken from morning, afternoon and evening time slots, and it was found that the baby-faced were cast primarily in commercials emphasizing trust, while mature-faced were shown in commercials emphasizing expertise

Problems in jobs:

Another important consequence of having a baby face occurs when people apply for jobs. Baby-faced applicants may be at a disadvantage compared to their mature-faced peers when they apply for certain types of jobs, most notably higher-status jobs that require leadership. In a study of how facial features might influence occupational hiring, college students examined resumes that included demographic and academic details. The examiners attached to each resume a photograph of a person who had either a baby face or mature face. Both faces were equally

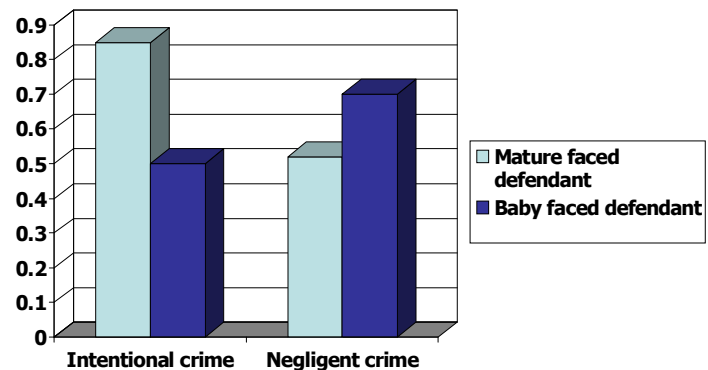
attractive. The students made hiring decisions about two jobs at a children's day care centre: teacher and director. The results showed that the baby-faced were selected more frequently for teaching job, while the mature-faced were considered appropriate for the post of director (Zebrowitz et al., 1991). Moreover, women applicants were more likely to be hiding for teacher job and men for director jobs. These findings indicate that the decision was only based on face, not on the resume. These results clearly demonstrate that baby-faced individuals may be discriminated against in ways that are legally prohibited for race and sex.

Double standard of justice:

Research has shown that baby-faced are convicted less for causing intentional harm, but are accused more for causing negligent harm (Zebrowitz & McDonald, 1991)

To summarize, baby faced are perceived differently which affect many kinds of interpersonal interactions. Because babies need protection, perceivers assume that adults who have baby faces also have childlike traits. Baby faces are easy to identify across cultures and across the life span. People who have baby faces are treated as though they are warm and approachable, but also as though they are weak and incompetent. Perceivers trust babyfaced actors in television commercials to be honest, hire baby-faced applicants for jobs that require interpersonal warmth, and treat baby-faced defendants leniently when they are charged with causing intentional harm. Conversely, perceivers "talk down" to babyfaced pupils, avoid choosing babyfaced workers for leadership positions, and consider babyfaced defendants likely to have caused negligent harm.

Facial maturity and jury decisions Berry et al., 1988



Detecting Lies

The success or failure of business deals, romantic relationships, international trade, murder trials, depend importantly on whether perceivers believe that another person is telling the truth. Of all organisms, however, the most skillful deceiver is the human being who is the acknowledged master of deceit and speaks lies in love and war and who indulges himself in little white lies. People lie because it is adaptive to do so, and because people get benefit from it.

Why lying is successful?

- Perceivers have a truthfulness bias (Zuckerman et al., 1981).
- Most behaviour is accepted uncritically at face value
- To doubt a target person's authority often runs the risk of hurting the perceiver's own feelings

Accuracy in judgment

- People, who have access to multiple channels of communication, tend to be more accurate in judging others' emotions.
- Nonverbal leakage: True emotions tend to "leak" out through nonverbal channels
- The body is more likely than the face to reveal deception
- Generally, the verbal channel tends to be the most influential.
- Lying: The Giveaways
Liars blink more, hesitate more, make more speech errors, speak in higher-pitched voices, and have more dilated pupils

Tables 1-4 displayed below describe how different forms of clues can be employed to detect lies:

Table 1: Cues to deception: Verbal cues

Verbal cues	Perceivers look for it	Is it a valid cue?
Negative statements	No	Yes
Irrelevant statements	No	Yes
Generalizing	No	Yes
Distancing	No	Yes

Table 2: Cues to deception: Vocal cues

Vocal cues	Perceivers look for it	Is it a valid cue?
Hesitation	Yes	Yes
Higher pitch	Yes	Yes
Speech errors	Yes	Yes
Delay before speaking	Yes	Yes
Speaking slowly	Yes	Yes
Length of speaking	Yes	Yes

Table 4: Cues to deception:
Miscellaneous cues

Miscellaneous cues	Perceivers look for it	Is it a valid cue?
Discrepancies	No	Yes
Planning time	No	Yes
Seem rehearsed	No	Yes
<u>Guilt, heightened emotions: blinking, shrugging, sweating</u>		

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- “Always tell the truth. Then you don’t have to remember anything” (Mark Twain, 1835-1910)
- Paula DePaula’s lying figures (1996): In a week a person speaks 10 lies on average; people lie to one thirds of people they interact
- People who are more sociable, manipulative, and concerned about creating favourable self-impression are more likely to lie.
- Analyze yourself that when you lie, how do you conceal it, and what cues you use when you lie in your everyday life.

How to detect lie?

- One study found that inaccurate judges (30% accuracy or worse) focused on verbal cues, compared to accurate judges (80% or more) who focused on nonverbal cues (Ekman & Sullivan, 1991)
- We are easily deceived when we are involved in discussion
- In nonverbal cues, biggest mistake is placing too much emphasis on the face (Ekman et al., 1988) like on baby or attractive faces.

- In one study a sample of female nurses watched disgusting or pleasant short films and they were instructed to either report their honest feelings about the film or to conceal their feelings. Hidden video cameras either focused on their faces or their body/behaviour. These tapes were later viewed by some judges. The results showed that the judges who were focusing on body movement like fidgeting fingers, shifts of body, etc. were more successful in detecting lies of nurses (Ekman & Friesen, 1974).

It can be concluded that people lie because they benefit from doing so. Ironically, the more liars have to gain from lying, the easier they are to detect. Lie detection, however, is far from accurate. Perceivers rely on cues that are not helpful and ignore cues that would be helpful. One frequently used cue is an "honest face." Another is expectancy violation. Because expectancies differ from one culture to the next, lie detection across cultures is very difficult. Within a culture, some people are better than others at telling and detecting lies.

Readings

1. Franzoi, S.L. (2006). *Social Psychology*. New York: McGraw Hill. Chapter 4.
2. Lord, C.G. (1997). *Social Psychology*. Orlando: Harcourt Brace and Company. Chapter 3.

LESSON 16**ATTRIBUTION****Aims**

Introduce the basic concept of causal judgment

Objectives

Compare and contrast the main theories of attribution processes

What is Attribution?

Attribution is the process by which people use information to make inferences about the causes of behaviour and events.

Attribution Theory is the area of psychology concerned with when and how people ask “why” questions.

Two important psychologists who analyzed attribution theory were Gustav Ichheiser (1943) and Fritz Heider (1958). Both flee from Austria to USA in the 1930 because of the rise of fascism and anti-intellectual atmosphere in Europe. Their career diverged in USA; Heider became an influential theorists and Ichheiser fought mental illness and went into obscurity.

Fritz Heider (1958)

Heider emerged as the most important attribution theorist and shaped the development of this theory. He maintained that people are motivated by two primary needs:

- the need to form a coherent view of the world
- the need to gain control over the environment

To satisfy these needs we act as naive scientists, rationally and logically testing our hypotheses about the behaviour of others. He talked about one important concept in relation to attribution- locus of causality.

The locus of causality

In making causal attributions, by far the most important judgment concerns the locus of causality.

- Internal attribution: any explanation that locates the cause as being internal to the person such as personality, mood, attitudes, abilities, and effort (also know as a person attribution)
- External attribution: any explanation that locates the cause as being external to the person such as the actions of others, the nature of the situation, or luck (also know as a situation attribution)

Stability & Controllability:

Weiner (1982, 1986) added another to attribution- stability vs. instability of causes.

Stable vs. unstable causes: permanent and lasting vs. temporary and fluctuating

Although stability and instability of dimension is independent of internal and stable dimension (dispositional), stability of causes can also be explained in combination with locus of causality. For example causes may be internal and stable, internal but unstable, external and stable, external and unstable

Controllable vs. Uncontrollable causes

- Weiner also talked about another dimension of making attribution- controllability and uncontrollability.
- They also are independent of locus of causality or stability of causes but can also be explained in connection with them.
- These three dimensions appear to be the main way people explain events, e.g., stigmatizing AIDS and cancer (Meyer & Koebl, 1982) and are equally applicable in individualist and collectivist countries (Hau & Salili, 1991)

Figure 1 describes below how an event can be explained in multiple combination of causality

Causes of academic achievement due to Locus, Stability and Controllability				
Controllability	Internal Stable	Internal Unstable	External Stable	External Unstable
Controllable	Typical effort	Temporary effort exerted for a particular exam	Some form of teacher bias	Unusual help from other
Uncontrollable	Exerted effort	Mood	Exam Difficulty	Luck

Correspondent Inference Theory (Jones & Davis, 1965)

The theory of correspondent inferences describes how we use certain rules of thumb to infer dispositional (stable and internal) causes of behaviour. The main characteristics are as under:

- People try to infer a correspondent inference that the action of an actor corresponds to, or is indicative of, a stable personality characteristic
- People prefer dispositional attributions because this type of knowledge is more valuable with regard to making predictions about people's behaviour
- However, social behaviour is ambiguous so as a guide people use several heuristics to assess whether correspondence between behaviour and personality is high

When we make dispositional attributions?

We are especially likely to make dispositional attributions when events are negative or unexpected and this usually happens under following three conditions:

- Social desirability: an internal, dispositional attribution more likely when socially undesirable behaviours are observed
- Choice: an internal, dispositional attribution is more likely when the actor has freely chosen the given behaviour (Jones & Harris, 1967)
- Non-common effects: an internal, dispositional attribution is more likely when the outcome of a behaviour has a unique (or non-common) effect

The Covariation Model (Kelly, 1967)

The correspondent inference model is limited to single instances of behaviour and focuses on internal attributions, whereas the covariation model focuses on multiple instances of behaviour. This theory maintains that for something to be the cause of a particular behaviour it must be present when the behaviour is present and absent when the behaviour is absent (i.e., covary). According to Kelly people make attributions by using the covariation principle. *Kelley's Covariation Model* (1967) states that people try to see if a particular cause and a particular effect go together across situations. The main elements of this model are as under:

- The correspondent inference model is limited to single instances of behaviour and focuses on internal attributions
- The covariation model accounts for multiple observational points and details the processes that result in external as well as internal attributions.
- Attributions are made using the covariation principle: For something to be the cause of a particular behaviour it must be present when the behaviour is present and absent when the behaviour is absent (i.e., covary)

- From multiple potential causes we ascribe causality to the one that covaries with the behaviour to the greatest extent

The discounting and augmentation principles:

The discounting principle:

The role of a given cause is discounted if other plausible causes are present

(i.e., exam failure but illness - decreased internal attribution); e.g., if a salesperson is nice to us, we don't necessarily assume he or she is intrinsically friendly

The augmentation principle:

The role of a given cause is augmented if an effect occurs in the presence of an inhibitory cause (i.e., exam success in spite of illness - increased internal attribution)

Assessing covariation (Kelly, 1967)

In assessing covariation people rely on three kinds of information:

1. Consensus information: the extent to which others react to some stimulus
2. Consistency information: the extent to which the person reacts to the stimulus in the same way on different occasions
3. Distinctiveness information: the extent to which the person reacts in the same way to other, different stimuli
 - Although the model is generally supported, all three types of information (consensus, consistency and distinctiveness information) are not equal (Chen, Yates, & McGinnies, 1988).
 - We attend more to the actor (consistency and distinctiveness information) rather than other actors in the context (consensus information), Windschitl & Wells (1997)

Let's consider Stephen Glass's case, mentioned in Person Perception lectures, for understanding the covariation model of attribution theory:

Covariation Model <i>Why did Glass's story contain unverified sources?</i>			
Distinctiveness	Consensus	Consistency	Attribution
Low – His stories for other magazines also contain unverified sources.	Low – No other journalist had problems with unverified sources.	High – A number of his previous stories had unverified sources.	Dispositional (lying, deceitful)
High – His stories for other magazines do not contain unverified sources.	High – Many journalists at 'New Republic' had problems with unverified sources.	High – A number of his previous stories had unverified sources.	Entity: something about 'New Republic'.
High – His Stories for other magazines do not contain unverified sources.	Low – No other journalist had problems with unverified sources.	Low – None of his previous stories had unverified sources.	Circumstances / Context (illness, deadline)

Reading

Franzoi, S. (2003). *Social Psychology*. Boston: McGraw-Hill. Chapter 4.

LESSON 17**ATTRIBUTION ERRORS****Aims**

Introduce the basic concept of causal judgment and errors involved in this process

Objectives

- Understanding primary biases in attributions – fundamental attribution error, actor-observer bias, false consensus effect, self-serving attribution error, and ultimate attribution error
- Discussing implication of attribution errors

Biases in Attribution

- Kelley's model is idealized to explain causes of behaviour, but we really are naive scientists.
- Although people follow these rules and deduce causality logically in some circumstances, a number of attribution biases and 'errors' often occur
- Considerable research suggests that there are several prominent biases in the ways we make causal attributions

The process of making causal attributions entails several "biases." First, attributers seem too ready to assume that another person's traits correspond with his or her words and deeds. This "correspondence bias" occurs because people overlook situational constraints, have unrealistic expectations for what other people are willing and able to do, overemphasize the link between the person and his or her behavior, and adjust their initial attributions inaccurately when they are "cognitively busy." The fundamental attribution error is the correspondence bias.

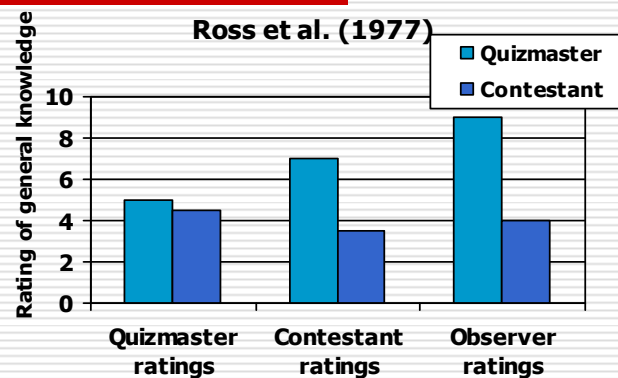
The fundamental attribution error

Ichheiser (1940) maintained long time ago that "In everyday life interpreting individual behaviour in the light of personal factors rather than in the light of situational factors must be considered the fundamental source of misunderstanding personality in our time". More than 30 years later, Ross (1977) renamed this tendency to make internal rather than external attributions for peoples' behaviour. He maintained that the fundamental attribution error is the tendency to overestimate the impact of dispositional causes and underestimate the impact of situational causes on other person's behaviour. Ross and his colleagues devised a simulated TV quiz game in which students were randomly assigned to serve as either quizmaster or contestants. The quizmasters would ask 10 challenging but fair questions from the contestants. The results showed that observers and contestants both rated the quizmasters as more knowledgeable despite the process of random selection for serving as either contestant or quizmaster. Figure 1 illustrates this experiment.

Explanations for the fundamental attribution error

The fundamental attribution error may occur because people make *dispositional* attributions automatically

- We only later use *situational* information to discount it.
- Predictability Need: It gives us greater confidence that we can accurately predict behaviour

Fundamental attribution error and TV quiz game

- Perceptual salience
 - The person being observed is the most perceptually salient aspect of the situation (i.e., moving, talking, etc.) and so an internal (person) attribution becomes much more accessible.

Taylor and Fiske (1975) tested this hypothesis by varying the seats of 6 people who observed 2 actors engaged in carefully arranged 5-minute conversation. Observers were seated so that faced actor A, B or both. Then they were asked whom they thought had the most impact on the conversation.

Results: whichever actor they faced was perceived as the most important of the dyad.

Cultural differences

- The fundamental attribution error is more common in individualist cultures than collectivist (Miller, 1984) suggesting that social learning may also contribute to the explanation of the effect.
- People in non-Western cultures are more likely to take situational and contextual information into account
- However, cultures do not create people with rigidly independent or collectivistic styles, situational factors can trigger spontaneous self concepts

The actor-observer bias

- People tend to attribute their own behaviour to external causes but that of others to internal
- *Actors* overestimate the importance of the situation in explaining their own behaviors: actors look at the situation, observers look at actors.
- This bias suggests that *observers* overestimate the importance of an actor's dispositions for causing the actor's behavior;
- Access to different information: actors have more background about themselves
- Actors overestimate the importance of the situation in explaining their own behaviors
Perceptual: actors look at the situation, observers look at actors

Storms's Study (1973)

- 2 participants as observers, 2 as 'conversational' actors
- Observers focus attention only on the actor they were facing
- Observers emphasized dispositional factors when explaining actor's behaviour
- Actors emphasized situational factors when explaining their own behaviour
- Perceptual salience: Actors attention is away from them (external), observers attention is on actor (internal)
- The actor-observer bias is reversed when participants shown videotapes of their opposite perspective before making attributions
- Actors saw own faces and made an internal attribution

False Consensus Effect

The attributers draw less dispositional inferences about their own behaviour than about another person's behaviour, because their own behaviours is less visually salient and because they believe that their own choices are more prevalent than they are, or at least more prevalent than they are viewed by other people who choose differently. False consensus occurs because our own behaviours are relatively easy to imagine, because we usually interact with "our own kind," and because it makes us feel good about ourselves.

Why do we tend to see our own behaviour and opinions as typical?

- We have a biased sample of similar others among our friends
- Our own opinions are more accessible/ salient

- We fail to realize that our choices reflect our construal and that others have different perceptions
- We are motivated to see ourselves as normal & good.

The Self-Serving Attribution Bias (SSAB)

We are not coldly rational informational processors of information. When our performance results in either success or failure, we tend to take credit for our successes but deny blame for our failures. Self-serving biases include attributing our own (but not other people) successes to internal-stable factors and our own (but not other people) failures to external-unstable factors, taking more credit than is due for desirable outcomes, and unrealistic (but useful) optimism about our life prospects. Where we will assign the locus of causality?: IQ, effort vs. unreasonable professor or luck? According to Olson & Ross (1988), we make internal attributions for our successes (e.g., I'm intelligent) and external attributions for failures (e.g., it was a particularly hard exam)

Explanations of the SSAB

■ Motivational

- Internally attributing success and externally attributing failure protects self-esteem

■ Cognitive

- We expect to do well in most things, which makes it logical to attribute failure to external sources (Taylor & Riess, 1989).

The ultimate attribution error

We attribute our group's successes to internal factors and other group's successes to external factors (Hewstone, 1990)

Accuracy of judgments -- Our judgments are both accurate and inaccurate.

- We tend to be accurate about external visible attributes.
- We are less accurate about inferred internal states (traits or feelings).

Implications

The process and biases of causal attribution have important consequences for deciding what caused our own and other people's success and failure and for attributing responsibility or blame. When making attributions for success and failure, people who attribute their own success to internal causes and their own failure to external causes do more for their self-esteem than do people who make the opposite attributions. People who attribute their own success to stable causes and their own failure to unstable causes have more optimistic expectations for the future than do people who make the opposite attributions. Also, people who attribute another person's suffering to uncontrollable causes have more pity, less anger, and less urge to help than do people who attribute another person's suffering to controllable causes.

Attributions of responsibility influence how people react to personal and social problems. Dispositional attributions often elicit more punitive reactions than do situational attributions for disaster victims, quarrelling spouses, drivers in automobile accidents, and for people with liver disease and other health problems. Prospective jurors also make different attributions and award different sentences for rape depending on characteristics of the victim. Finally, attributions for murder differ depending on characteristics of the victim that the killer did not know and depending on the culture. People from collectivist cultures are less biased toward dispositional attributions for murder than are people from individualist cultures.

Reading

1. Franzoi, S. (2003). *Social Psychology*. Boston: McGraw-Hill. Chapter 4.
2. Lord, C.G. (1997). *Social Psychology*. Orlando: Harcourt Brace and Company. Chapter 4.

LESSON 18**SOCIAL COGNITION****Aims**

To acquaint students with the concept of social cognition and cognitive misers in making sense of their social world.

Objectives

- To understand the dual process of social cognition
- To describe how do we organize and make sense of social information through social categorization and schemas.
- To discuss what shortcuts stretch our cognitive resources.

What is Social Cognition?

Social cognition is the way we analyse, remember, and use information about the social world (Berkowitz & Devine, 1995)

Social cognition focuses on the way we use this information to arrive at coherent judgments.

Dual-Process models of social cognition: strategies

- Explicit cognition: Deliberate judgments or decisions of which we are consciously aware
- Implicit cognition: Judgments or decisions that are under the control of automatically activated evaluations

How do we organize and make sense of social information

Usually we make quick impression of people based on minimal information available and we do not have luxury of engaging in detailed impression. Luckily then we come equipped with alternative social strategies that rely on implicit cognition. To make sense of our social world, we categorize things, and develop theories (schemas) of how the social world operates.

We are categorizing creatures

- A mental grouping of objects, ideas, or events that share common properties is known as category– concepts
- Categories are building blocks of cognitions
- Bruner, Goodnow, & Austin (1956) indicated that category membership is determined via defined features, i.e., an animal with three body divisions, six legs, an external skeleton, and a rapid reproductive system = INSECT. If one or more of these attributes is missing the animal is something else.
- Expands our ability to deal with the huge amount of information

Social categorization (Hampson, 1988)

- The classification of people into groups based on their common attributes
- Usually done on the basis of readily apparent physical features: sex, age, and race; primary categories for human beings (Schneider, 2004); special for evolutionary and socio-cultural reasons
- BUT...many categories have uncertain or ‘Fuzzy’ boundaries (Rosch, 1978) and do not fit in with a strict classification system.
- Category refers to features that characterize the most typical (McGarry, 1999).
- Prototypes are the most representative members of a category (Barsalou, 1991).
- Categorization of less typical members may be slower/errorful because they are less available (male nurses).
- Correct categorization depends on how similar a given instance is to the prototype, e.g., the prototype of the category ‘engineers’ is a male which may lead to errors in

categorization when encountering a female engineer. Similarly the prototype of a “nurse” fits well with a female.

Developing Schemas

- We not only mentally group objects, ideas, or events into categories, but we also develop theories about these categories, called schemas.
- A *schema* is an organized, structured set of cognitions about a concept.
- Event schemas are known as *scripts*.
- Schemas are often called stereotypes when applied to members of a social group
- Schemas can be about particular people, social roles, groups, or common events.
- People are good or bad in certain schemas, like someone’s computer schema may not be good.

Advantages of Schematic Processing

- Schemas Aid Information Processing
- Schemas Aid Recall
- Schemas Speed Up Processing
- Schemas Aid Automatic Inference
- Schemas Add Information
- Schemas Aid Interpretation
- Schemas Provide Expectations
- Schemas Contain Affect

What shortcuts stretch our cognitive resources: The cognitive miser?

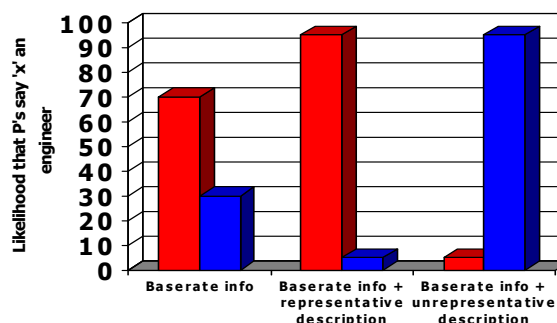
- Processing resources are valuable so we engage in timesaving mental shortcuts when trying to understand the social world (Fiske & Taylor, 1991)
- Timesaving mental shortcuts, called heuristics, reduce complex judgements to simple rules-of-thumb (Tversky & Kahneman, 1974)
- Advantages of using cognitive miser are: 1. quick social judgement and, 2. reasonable accuracy
- Quick and easy - but can result in biased information processing (Ajzen, 1996)

The Representativeness Heuristic

- The tendency to judge the category membership of people based on how closely they match the prototypical member of that category. There is an old saying that “It looks like a duck, it quakes like a duck, then it is probably a duck”
- One important qualifying information is base rates
- Importance of personal descriptions vs. base-rate information: study by Tversky & Kahneman (1973) where they told the research participants that an imaginary named Jack had been selected from a group of 100 people. Some were told that 30 were engineer and others were told that 70 of 100 were engineers. Half of them were given a description of Jack that either fit the common stereotype of an engineer or did not. Then they were asked to guess the probability that Jack was an engineer. The results showed that when participants received only information related to base rates, they were more likely to guess that he was an engineer, but when they received information about Jack’s personality, they tended to ignore the base-rate information. This tendency is known as base-rate fallacy.

Figure 1 illustrates this study.

Study of Tversky & Kahneman (1973)



A. The Availability Heuristic

The tendency to judge the frequency or probability of an event in terms of how easy it is to think of examples of that event (accessibility, Tversky & Kahneman (1973), e.g., plane crashes.

Study of Schwarz et al. (1991)

- Recall 12 (cognitively difficult) vs. 6 (cognitively easy) examples of assertive and unassertive behaviour
- Rate assertiveness
- People attend to the difficulty of retrieving instances of certain behaviours rather than just the content

Figure 2 illustrates this study

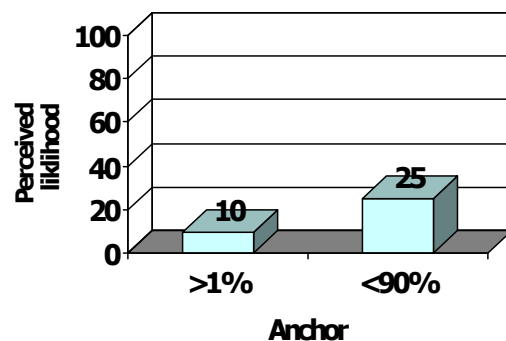
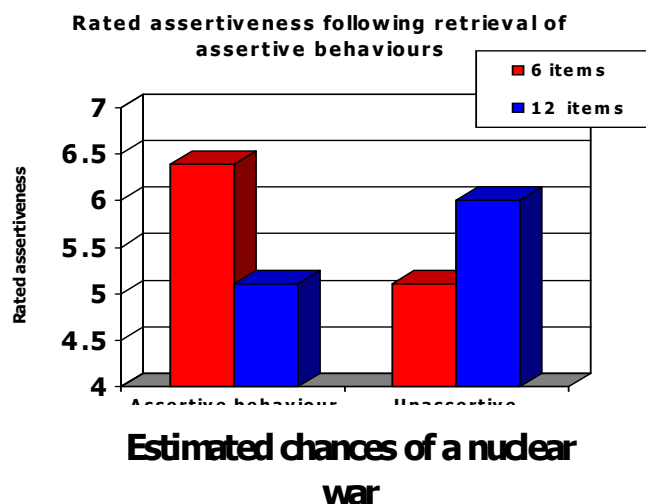
The Anchoring & adjustment Heuristic

- Anchoring is the tendency to be biased towards the starting value or anchor in making quantitative judgements
- In a survey study Plous (1989) asked one of the following questions from the respondents:
 - Is there a greater than 1% chance of a nuclear war occurring soon? (10%), OR
 - Is there less than a 90% chance of a nuclear war occurring soon? (25%)

The results of this study are illustrated in Figure 3

Reading

- Franzoi, S. (2003). Social Psychology. Boston: McGraw-Hill. Chapter 5.



LESSON 19**SOCIAL COGNITION****Aims**

- To introduce how past events and expectations affect our social thinking.
-

Objectives

- To discuss the how our recollection of past events can affect our social thinking.
- To describe how do our expectations shape our social thinking.
- To help students use this knowledge in their personal life through activities and applied social psychology lab.

What are some ways of thinking about the past?**Hindsight bias**

- The tendency, once an event has occurred, to overestimate our ability to have foreseen the outcome
- Fueled by our desire for making sense
- Does not occur for very unusual and bizarre events

Counterfactual Thinking

- *Counterfactual reasoning* involves imagining alternative outcomes (what if thinking).
- Most likely when people experience unexpected or negative events.
- “Downhill” changes more easily imagined than “uphill” changes
- People engage in counterfactual reasoning to make themselves feel better and to help prepare themselves for the future.
- Sometimes not only ineffective in emotional coping but also downright unproductive; study by Davis et al. (1996) of people who had lost spouse or child. People who indulged themselves in imagination how the tragedy could have been averted by mentally undoing things preceding it felt more distressed and guilty.

How do expectations shape our social thinking?

- False consensus
- Confirmation bias
- Self-fulfilling prophecy
- Just world belief
- Learned helplessness

The False Consensus effect

- The tendency to exaggerate how common one’s own opinions are in the general population (Gross & Miller, 1997; Muller et al., 2002).
- Based on the belief that our opinions are fairly typical

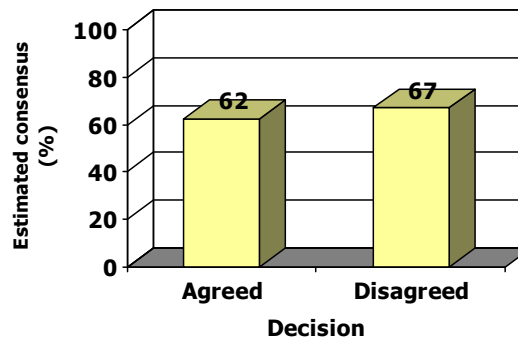
Ross, Greene, & House’ study (1977)

- The researchers asked students the following question: “Would you walk around campus for thirty minutes wearing a large sandwich board saying EAT AT JOE’S!” (Traders Joe is a famous US take-away)
- Then they were asked to estimate the number of students who would make the same choice
- Students agreed to do so estimated that 62% will agree and those who disagreed estimated that 67% will not agree.

Figure 1 illustrates this study:

Explanation of the FCE

- The availability heuristic: “our self concepts serve as the lens through which we view others (Kulig, 2000): Our own self-beliefs are easily recalled from memory making them most accessible (available) when we judge whether others agree with us
- False-uniqueness belief: The tendency to underestimate how common one’s own desirable traits and abilities are in the general population. It appears to be a product of the self serving bias which is a tendency to more often attribute positive than negative traits to ourselves

Ross, Greene, & House (1977)**Estimated consensus to wearing sandwich board****Confirmation bias**

This selective attention inhibits problem solving when our solution is incorrect.

- The tendency to seek information that supports our beliefs while ignoring disconfirming information
- When you look for the bad in mankind expecting to find it, you surely will (Lincoln, 1809-1865)
- For a man always believes more readily that which he prefers (Francis Bacon, 1561-1626)
- Snyder & Swann (1978) asked research participants to find out whether the person they were about to interact was an introvert or extravert. Consistent with the confirmation bias, the questions that participants asked were biased in the direction of the original question.
- Usually caused by taking cognitive shortcuts, but may also be due to our desire to get along with others; asking matching questions (Lyens, 1990)

The Self-fulfilling prophecy

The process by which expectations about a person or group leads to the fulfilment of those expectations

Rosenthal & Jacobson’ study (1968)

- Teachers told that ‘tests’ had revealed certain students were ‘bloomers’ and should improve substantially over the year
- The 20% ‘bloomers’ were actually randomly chosen
- IQ tested 8 months later
- Would teachers’ expectations enhance the achievements of the selected pupils?

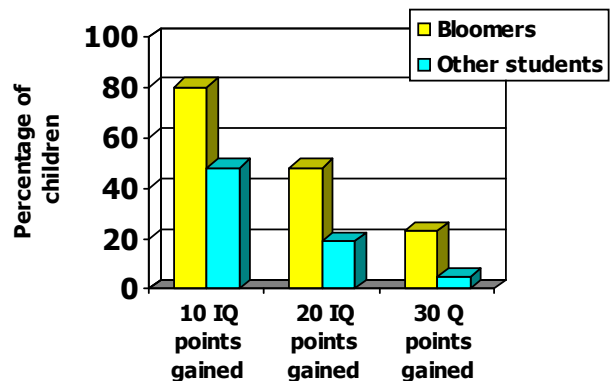
IQ improvement as a function of the self-fulfilling prophecy

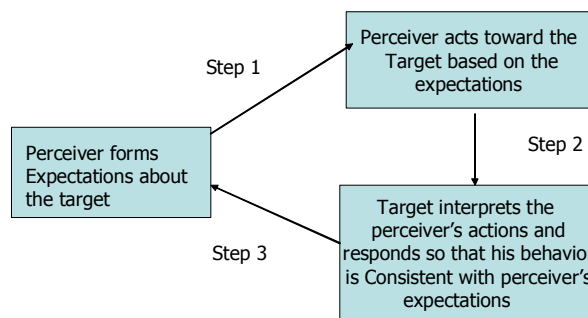
Figure 2 illustrates this study in the following:

The development of self-fulfilling prophecy has been explained in Figure 3 as given below:

The development of self-fulfilling prophecy

The Just-World Hypothesis (Lerner, 1980)

- A belief system in which the world is perceived to be a fair and equitable place, with people getting what they deserve
- Provides an illusion of control 'if we are good people good things will happen to us'



Advantages:

- Related to good psychological adjustment (Ormel & Schaufeli, 1991), improves relationships (Lipkus & Bissonnette, 1996 and reduces stress (Lipkus et al., 1996).

Disadvantages

- Defensive attribution (Shaver, 1970)
- Blame victims for their own misfortune to retain the belief that bad things only happen to bad people (and so a similar tragedy will not befall us!)
- qualified by similarity (Burger, 1981)
- What happens when people believing in a JW encounter contradictory outcomes? Like Earthquakes or 9/11. If the event was truly without personal fault, people with BJW often respond with revenge (Kaiser et al., 2004)

Expecting failure breeds helplessness

- The passive resignation produced by repeated exposure to negative events that are perceived to be unavoidable. In human beings first reactions are of anxiety, however as the extent of uncontrollable events increases and they begin to feel helpless, anger is replaced with depression.
- First discovered in animal research (Seligman & Maier, 1967)
- Not everyone experiences it, but people's attributions about the causation of initial lack of control determines the outcome (Abramson et al., 1978)

Applied Social Psychology Lab 1

- How do you explain negative events in your life?
- Pessimistic vs. optimistic explanatory styles: habitual ways to attribute negative/positive events to internal, stable, global /external, unstable, specific causes (Nolen-Hoeksema, 1992; Sweeney et al., 1986)
- The optimist sees the rose and not its thorns; the pessimist stares at the thorns, oblivious to the rose (Khalil Gibran, Lebanese poet, 1883-1931)
- Archival study about college graduates describing their wartime experience classifying their pessimistic style in 1946; not at that time but by the age of 45, when life became more variable, those having pessimistic explanatory style in their youth showed more health related problems (Peterson et al., 1988)

- Archival study showed positive correlation b/w pessimistic style and health problems (Peterson et al., 1988)
- Optimists have better immune system
- Use of Cognitive therapy to change self-attributions: keeping a diary of success and failures, and identifying how you contributed to your successes and failures; train to engage in self-serving bias.

Applied Social Psychology Lab 2

After 9/11 FBI office was flooded with calls reporting possible suspects. Keeping in view that virtually every suspect had an Arab descent, answer the following questions.

1. What cognitive heuristic was employed in these social judgments? (Answer is representativeness heuristic)
2. Why people were relying on this heuristic? (Answer is availability heuristic)

Reading

4. Franzoi, S. (2003). *Social Psychology*. Boston: McGraw-Hill. Chapter 5.

LESSON 20**ATTITUDES****Aims**

- To introduce the concept of attitudes, components, and ways of assessment.

Objectives

- To discuss definition of an attitude and its components
- To describe direct and indirect methods of assessing attitudes.

Discussion about new section “Evaluating Persons and Relationships” of study in Social Psychology

Since with the study of Attitudes, a new section is being started, some discussion was carried out about the main components of this section “Evaluating persons and relationships”. This section will comprise on the general study of attitude formation and change. This section will also focus on specific attitudes like negative attitudes of prejudice and discrimination, and positive attitudes of interpersonal attractions and attachments. The section will discuss causes of social intolerance and different forms of prejudice. Discussion will also be carried out on how positive attractions are formed.

What is an Attitude?

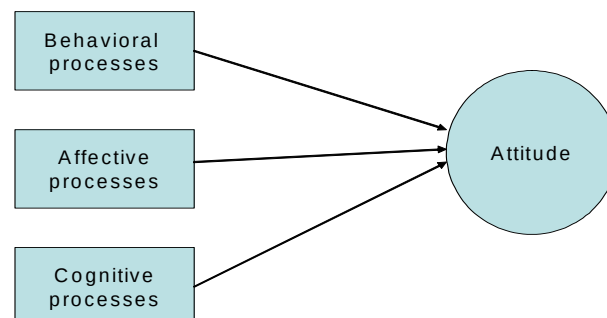
- A positive or negative evaluation of an object (Schuman, 1995), where an attitude object is a person, thing, event, or issue
- Earliest use of the term *attitude* came from theatre, described it as a body posture; dates back to the 1800s; later referred to as a “posture of mind” than of body.
- According to Allport, attitude is the most indispensable concept of social psychology. He maintained that “Attitudes determine for each individual what he will see and hear, what he will think and what he will do. To borrow a phrase from William James, “*they engender meaning upon the world*” (Allport, 1935, p. 806).

Three components of Attitudes

Before 1990s attitudes were interpreted in terms of their three components (tricomponent). This idea was based on “ABC” information namely:

- **Affective component:** the person’s emotions and affect towards the object
- **Behavioral component:** how person tends to act towards the object; Attitudes are but one determinant of behavior but not the only one; conversely past behavior also determines attitudes.
- **Cognitive component:** consists of thoughts and beliefs the person has about the object. Attitudes are often cognitively complex but evaluative simple.

Because all of these components may not be present always, many psychologists have moved to single dimension definition-evaluative. Commonly used words for evaluating objects are bad, good, dislike, hate, love, etc. However, specialized terms are also employed to evaluate, for example, attitude toward self is referred to as self esteem,. Similarly negative specific attitudes are prejudice and discrimination whereas specific positive attitudes are interpersonal attractions and relationships. Prejudice is an attitude toward group, whereas interpersonal attractions are for individuals. Although evaluative

Three different types of attitude antecedents

component is central to an attitude, the other two dimensions -behavior and beliefs- can also not be overlooked.

Assessing Attitudes

Direct Assessment:

Usually three methods are employed to measure attitudes directly:

1. Likert (Summated Ratings) scales:

What is your opinion about co-education at college level?

-4 -3 -2 -1 0 +1 +2 +3 +4

Very much opposed Very much in favor

2. Semantic Differential Scales: Do You feel about the taste of this (any brand) coffee?

Unpleasant _____ Pleasant

3. Latitude of Acceptance

-4 -3 -2 -1 0 +1 +2 +3 +4

All options acceptable to the respondent are encircled, while those not acceptable are encircled.

Indirect Assessment

- Social desirability problem in direct assessment led to indirect assessment of attitudes.
- Studies conducted in 1930s and then in 1969 showed reduction in stereotypes of White against black people. However, the evidence does not show a reduction in prejudice over time. This artifact thus can be attributed to social desirability factor.
- Bogus pipeline technique is used to convince the respondents that the experimenter has a pipeline into the respondent's real attitudes
- Bogus pipeline techniques are effective in getting people to admit that they smoke or drink too much, and engage in other unhealthy behaviors
- Recent advances in electrophysiology may remove the "bogus" from the bogus pipeline and make it possible to detect attitudes directly. For example, electromyography recordings can detect minute changes in these muscles accurately reflecting a person's feelings and thus can help detect attitudes.

Reading

- Franzoi, S. (2003). *Social Psychology*. Boston: McGraw-Hill. Chapter 6.
- Lord, C.G. (1997). *Social Psychology*. Orlando: Harcourt Brace and Company. Chapter 6.

LESSON 21**ATTITUDE FORMATION****Aims**

To introduce the main theoretical approaches to the study of attitudes

Objectives

- ☐ Evaluate the theories of attitude formation and function
- ☐ To understand the concepts through applied social psychology lab.

Attitude formation:

In the following, different theories about how attitudes are formed have been explained.

1) Mere exposure (Robert Zajonc, 1968)

- The tendency to develop more positive feelings toward objects and individuals the more we are exposed to them
- No action or beliefs about the object required
- Familiarity does not breed contempt!

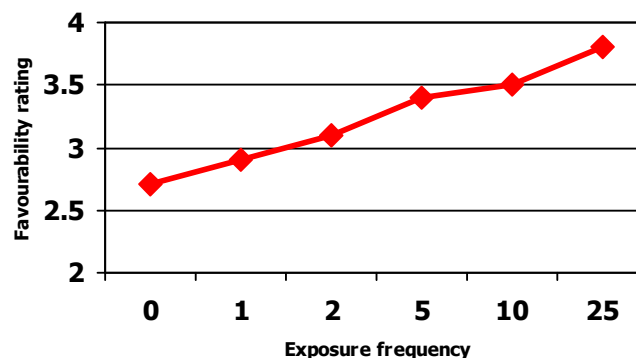
Experiment by Zajonc (1968)

- 'Experiment to determine how people learn a foreign language'
- 10 Chinese-like characters on computer screen, 2 seconds each
- Characters varied in how many times presented
- 'These characters are adjectives - are they positive or negative?'

The results showed that the characters presented more often generated a more positive attitude in the participants. The Figure 1 displayed below explains this.

Figure 1:

Frequency of exposure to previously neutral objects and subsequent liking

**Another experiment by Mita, Dermer, & Knight (1977)**

- Participants showed a photo of them and the mirror image
- The prints were indistinguishable from each other
- Asked to rate which of two prints they liked better
- We prefer the mirror print because this is the view of ourselves we most often see
- Our friends see the 'actual' view
- This is the reason why we never like photos of ourselves?

Liking for photo and mirror prints of own face

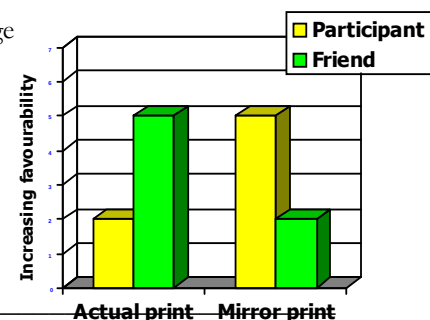
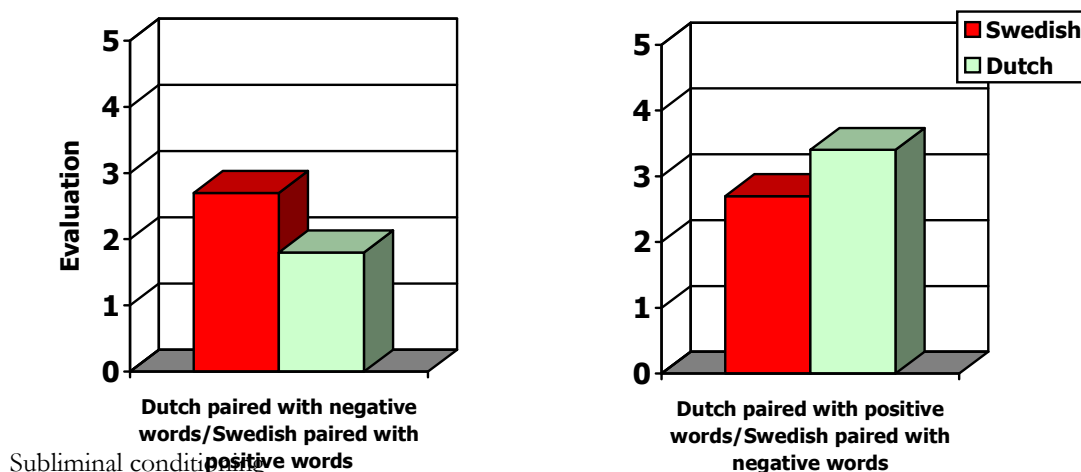


Figure 2 below illustrates this experiment

2) Classical conditioning

- Classical conditioning when a neutral stimulus is paired with a stimulus that naturally evokes an emotional response (Learning through association)
- Aarther & Carolyn Staats (1962) first time investigated classical conditioning in association with attitude.
- But does this occur with social groups?
- The magnitude of the effect was not great, suggesting classical conditioning may contribute to, but not fully explain, affective components of attitude formation
- An even stronger effect when aversive stimuli paired with nonsense words (Cacioppo, Marshall-Goodell, Tassinary, & Petty, 1992)
- This suggests that classical conditioning is a more powerful determinant of attitude formation when little knowledge is available about the attitude object (e.g., different racial groups?)

Figures 3 and 4 displayed below reflect the effect of pairing positive and negative words with different nationalities: Study by Staats and Staats (1958)



- Classical conditioning that occurs in the absence of conscious awareness of the stimuli
- Krosnick et al. (1992) showed college students slide photos of a stranger going about her daily activities
- Preceded by very brief (13/1000 of a second) subliminal presentations of photos inducing positive and negative emotions
- Those exposed to the positive photos reported more positive attitude toward the stranger.

3) Operant conditioning

- Operant conditioning occurs where behaviour is strengthened following rewards and weakened following punishments. For example, a student may develop a positive attitude to maths if praised for efforts, but his efforts remain unnoticed then may stop taking much interest in the subjects which may lead to deterioration in performance.
- Classical conditioning ----> affective component
- Operant conditioning ----> behavioural component
- Can also develop through the indirect means of *observational learning* (Bandura, 1986). For example, if your friend has a car accident, he will start avoid driving due to operant conditioning, but if you avoid or dislike driving, it will be the result of observational learning. This helps children learn many activities and skills. Also they learn how to

behave in their families and in their culture

4) Self-perception theory (Bem, 1965)

- We infer our attitudes from observing our own behaviours (i.e., behaviours can cause attitudes)
- Attributional processes - we attribute our own behaviour as being indicative of certain attitudes
- Bem argued we are more likely to make attitude inferences when our behaviour is freely chosen

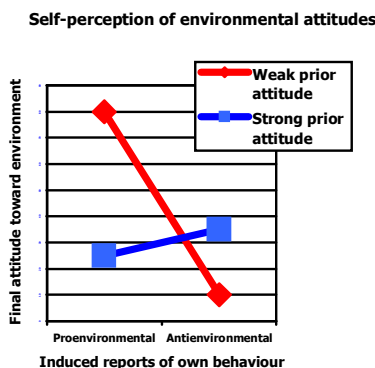
Chaiken & Baldwin's Study (1981)

The researchers conducted an interesting empirical demonstration of self-perception theory of attitude formation. They first separated participants into 2 groups: strong and weak proenvironment. Then they induced them to endorse either relatively pro or anti statements on a questionnaire. The results showed that the participants who were induced into reporting proenvironment behavior reported more positive attitude for environment. However, this only occurred if their initial proenvironment attitude was weak.

Facial feedback theory

- Strack, Martin, & Stepper (1988) conducted a study to understand the impact of facial expression and movement on attitude. They showed cartoons to 3 types of participants; those who saw cartoons with pen in teeth, pen in lips, and in their no dominant hand. Later their attitude toward cartoons was asked.
- Pen in teeth (like smiling) vs. Pen in lips (prevents smiling)
- Pen in teeth ----> greater liking of the attitude object (cartoon)
- This indicates facial feedback hypothesis.

These results also support the vascular theory of emotions, as described below.



Vascular theory of emotion (Zajonc, 1993)

- Smiling causes facial muscles to increase the flow of air-cooled blood to the brain producing pleasant mood. On the contrary, frowning decreases blood flow promoting negative mood. In 1989 the researchers showed that even pronouncing vowel sound than other mimicking frowning (u) characters can decrease blood flow.
- Other body postures, sitting upright at a normal-height table or sitting slumped over at a short-legged table determined levels of positive attitude (Sabine Stepper & Strack, 1993)

6. Functional

- Attitudes formed (and change) based on the degree to which they satisfy different psychological needs
- e.g., changing from liking to disliking a brand of coffee because of anti-environmental practices

- Active vs. passive attitude theory

Applied Social Psychology Lab

- Performing actions associated with happiness cause us not only to feel happier but also to perceive other objects in our environment favorably.
- Is there any wisdom in parents admonishing their children to straighten their posture and to avoid slouching?

Reading

- Franzoi, S. (2003). *Social Psychology*. Boston: McGraw-Hill. Chapter 6

LESSON 22**ATTITUDE AND BEHAVIOR****Aims:**

Introducing the concept of relationship between attitude and behavior.

Objectives

Describe models of the relationship between attitudes and behavior

Understanding factors determining link between attitude and behavior.

The Attitude-Behaviour Relationship

During the 1970s a crisis of “confidence” in the attitude concept developed as a result of weak relationship between attitude and behaviour.

Psychologists started questioning whether attitudes still should be considered a central concept of social psychology.

Difficulty was first demonstrated by LaPierre in 1934; in the US in the 30's there was widespread prejudice against Asians. LaPierre went with a young Chinese couple across the U.S for 3 months. The question under consideration was ‘Would restaurant/hotel managers refuse to serve the couple?’

Only 1 out of 66 hotels turned them away, 1 out of 250 restaurants refused service

Later a letter sent asking if they would serve Chinese

Of the 128 replies 90% said they would refuse to serve Chinese people

When do attitudes predict behaviour?

1. Factors affecting attitude-behaviour relationship

Specificity

Test-retest reliability

Private vs. public self-awareness

Attitude strength

Attitude accessibility

Specificity

In LaPierre study Behaviour was specific (the Chinese couple) but attitude was general (would you serve Chinese people in general)

Specific attitudes ----> Specific behaviour

Test-retest reliability

The longer the time between attitude measurement and behaviour, more likely the attitude will change

Private vs. Public self-awareness

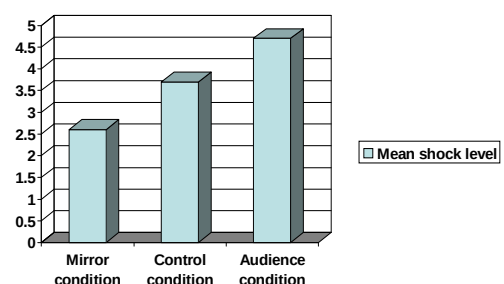
- Privately self-aware ----> behave in line with own attitude
- Publicly self-aware ----> behave in line with public attitude
- William Froming et al. (1982) pre-tested students regarding their attitude toward physical punishment; From this group selected those having negative attitude toward physical punishment; Later the participants were asked to administer shocks to people; The results showed that participants behaved according to their private and public self-awareness; those private self-conscious and looking themselves in mirror administered shocks of lesser intensity. Those facing audience worked according to their public self-awareness.

Attitude-Behavior consistency due to type of self-awareness is displayed in the following graph.

Attitude strength

Greater information about attitude object: having more information about an attitude object is often

Attitude-Behavior consistency due to type of self-awareness



sufficient to strengthen people's attitude.

Greater personal involvement with attitude object

Greater direct experience with attitude: With having a direct experience, people tend to engage in all 3 components of attitude: affective, cognitive, and behavioral.

All three factors lead to greater attitude strength and greater attitude-behaviour consistency

- Study showing consistency between environmental attitude and knowledge and behaviour (Kallgren & Wood, 1986): People were questioned first about their attitude and knowledge about environmental issues; later were asked to participate in pro-environmental activities. Those who know a lot showed more consistency between attitude and behaviour.

Attitude accessibility

The availability heuristic (tendency to judge the probability of an event; recall)

The more accessible an attitude the greater attitude-behaviour consistency

Measured by speed of response to questions concerning the attitude object (Fazio & Williams, 1986)

Theory of planned behavior

2. The theory of planned behaviour (Fishbein & Ajzen, 1975)

People's conscious decisions (intentions) to engage in specific actions are determined by three factors...

1. Determinants of attitudes

One's beliefs about the consequences of performing the behaviour

One's evaluation of the possible consequences

2. Determinants of subjective norms

The perceived expectations of significant others

One's motivation to conform to these expectations

3. Determinants of perceived control

One's perception of how easy or difficult to perform the behaviour, e.g., Quitting smoking

Attitude is positive (I want to stop smoking)

Subjective norms are positive (family wants you to stop smoking)

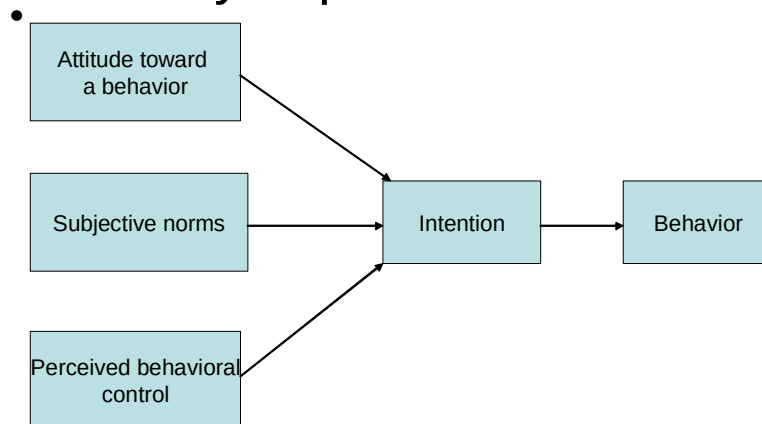
Perceived control is low (I'm addicted!)

Not an additive effect, if one of the three components is strongly anti- the behaviour, intention will be low and the behaviour will not be carried out

Diagram illustrating theory of planned behavior

Criticisms on the theory of planned behaviour

Theory of planned behavior



- Spontaneous unintentional behaviour (e.g., attitude accessibility)

- Habits.
- Both of these involve little reasoned thought (behavioural intention)
- TPB is good for explaining logical reasoned behaviours but cannot account for automatic behaviour
- We are, after all, cognitive misers...

Reading

- Franzoi, S. (2003). Social Psychology. Boston: McGraw-Hill. Chapter 6.